Date of publication xxxx 00, 0000, date of current version xxxx 00, 0000.

Digital Object Identifier 10.1109/TQE.2025.DOI

Text Encoding in Quantum Natural Language Processing: A Systematic Survey

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ABSTRACT Quantum natural language processing (QNLP) applies superposition, entanglement, and interference to the representation and processing of linguistic information. Any QNLP pipeline, whatever its architecture, must first map discrete or distributed text representations onto qubit registers or parameterized-circuit inputs. This encoding step governs model expressivity, qubit resource requirements, and trainability. Yet it is rarely studied as an independent variable, and no unified method exists for analyzing and comparing encodings. This article closes that gap with a systematic literature review of text encoding strategies in QNLP. The review covers 125 primary studies published between 2021 and 2026, under a protocol defined before the search was executed that fixed the search strategy, eligibility criteria, screening procedure, snowball sampling, and data extraction. It introduces a unifying taxonomy for analyzing and comparing encodings. Seven encoding families are identified and characterized: four major families, angle, amplitude, syntactic (DisCoCat), and structured feature maps (IQP/ZZ), and three emerging families: data re-uploading, hybrid classical–quantum embedding, and Hamiltonian/observable encoding. Their distribution is analyzed across NLP tasks, simulation and hardware environments, qubit budgets, and reporting practice. Three findings stand out: noiseless circuit simulation dominates the literature, real-hardware execution remains rare, and evaluation is too fragmented across author-chosen datasets, baselines, and metrics for results to be compared between studies. The encoding bottleneck, the dimensionality mismatch between linguistic representations and near-term qubit capacities, is stated explicitly as a basis for resource-efficient QNLP algorithm and hardware design.

INDEX TERMS Encoding bottleneck, parameterized quantum circuits, quantum machine learning, quantum natural language processing, systematic literature review, text encoding.

I. INTRODUCTION

EVERY quantum natural language processing (QNLP) system begins with a mandatory step: converting text into a quantum state. Before a single gate is applied or a single parameter is trained, a token, sentence, or document must be mapped onto qubits. This mapping, the encoding, determines how many qubits are consumed and how deep the resulting circuit must be. It determines whether gradients can be computed efficiently, and whether any genuinely quantum property, such as entanglement, is brought to bear on the linguistic content. It is, in short, the most consequential design decision in the pipeline.

Despite this centrality, encoding is rarely the subject of dedicated study. Most QNLP papers dispatch it in a paragraph, introduce one strategy without justification, and move on to reporting accuracy numbers. After five years of accelerating publication activity, the result is a fragmented body of work: dozens of encoding families coexist, yet there is no common approach for analyzing and comparing them. Unified taxonomies, systematic comparisons, and a shared understanding of encoding trade-offs are all missing from the literature. Existing QNLP surveys and reviews do not isolate encoding as a variable [1], [2]. The few explicitly comparative studies contrast model families or ansätze rather than encoding schemes [3], [4]. This article fills that gap: it conducts an extensive systematic literature review of the topic and makes text encoding in QNLP the primary subject of study.

A. SCOPE

This survey reviews primary research that (1) applies a genuine quantum circuit (simulated noiseless, simulated noisy, or executed on real hardware) to at least one NLP task, and (2) identifies, at least by name or type, the encoding scheme used to map text or text-derived features onto qubits or circuit parameters. The review follows an SLR protocol defined before the search (Section III) adapted from established guidelines for secondary studies in computer science [5].

Papers that use quantum-inspired or quantum-motivated classical algorithms without instantiating an actual parameterized quantum circuit are excluded. Also excluded are survey and review papers, hardware-focused benchmarking studies that treat NLP datasets as a generic payload, and papers with insufficient methodological detail to assess the encoding scheme. The final corpus comprises 125 primary studies.

The scope is limited to the encoding step. Quantum circuit design, ansatz expressibility, and quantum error correction are surveyed only where they interact directly with encoding choices. Classical NLP methods are discussed only as baselines.

B. KEY CONTRIBUTIONS

This article makes four contributions to the study of text encoding in QNLP:

1) A novel taxonomy of text encoding strategies, organized by the point at which text enters the quantum computation and covering seven encoding families (four major and three emerging) with their specialized variants.
2) A systematic review of 125 primary studies that apply or propose quantum text encodings across NLP tasks, conducted under the Keele and Charters guidelines with a protocol defined before the search.
3) A quantitative cross-study characterization of the corpus under the encoding comparison framework of Section III-F, spanning encoding-by-model-family, temporal, task-fit, and experimental-rigor analyses.
4) A corpus-derived set of five open challenges, including an explicit statement of the encoding bottleneck and an actionable agenda for future work.

C. RELATED WORK

Several prior works survey the QNLP literature, but none treats text encoding as the central variable. Varmantchaonala et al. [6] provide the most comprehensive QNLP survey to date, covering quantum algorithms, circuit architectures, and NLP task categories; encoding appears only as an implementation detail. Guarasci et al. [7] offer an early and influential overview of QNLP challenges and opportunities, from theoretical quantum-advantage arguments to hardware experiments, without isolating encoding as a dimension of comparison. Widdows et al. [8] examine word embeddings and sequential quantum models with more attention to representation trade-offs than any other general survey, but stop short of a systematic comparison. Bouakba and Belhadef [3] experimentally compare compositional DisCoCat models against quantum neural networks; their compositional-versus-flat-vector axis overlaps with the taxonomy proposed here, though their scope is limited to two model families. Huzzat et al. [9] is the most encoding-aware prior work: it addresses the mismatch between text-representation dimensionality and the qubit capacity of NISQ classifiers, and treats classical compression as a prerequisite for stable training. It remains, however, a conceptual primer for a single model class rather than a systematic review.

Beyond QNLP itself, the quantum engineering literature has an established tradition of comprehensive subfield surveys, covering, for instance, quantum circuit compilation for NISQ devices [10], quantum computing for finance [11], and entanglement routing in quantum networks [12], the last of which likewise organizes its field through an explicit taxonomy of approaches. None of these addresses text encoding in QNLP, which is the gap the present survey fills within that tradition.

This survey complements these works by treating encoding as the primary unit of analysis across 125 primary studies. Encoding family, qubit count, NLP task, execution environment, and the presence of a classical baseline were extracted for each study, yielding the first quantitative cross-study characterization of how text is encoded and at what resource cost.

D. STRUCTURE

The rest of the article is organized as follows. Section II provides the background on quantum computing, compositional distributional semantics, and the role of encoding in QNLP. Section III describes the systematic review protocol (search strategy, eligibility criteria, screening, and snowball sampling) and presents the encoding comparison framework used throughout the analysis. Section IV introduces the taxonomy of text encoding strategies and characterizes each family. Section V analyzes how each encoding family is used across model families and ansätze. Section VI traces the temporal evolution of encoding and model choices. Section VII examines the fit between encoding, model family, and NLP task. Section VIII assesses experimental rigor across simulation regimes, hardware use, and reproducibility. Section IX synthesizes the trends, states the encoding bottleneck explicitly, and enumerates the open challenges and the future-work agenda. Section X concludes.

II. BACKGROUND

A. QUANTUM COMPUTING PRIMITIVES

A quantum bit (qubit) occupies a superposition of the basis states $|0\rangle$ and $|1\rangle$:

$$|\psi\rangle = \alpha|0\rangle + \beta|1\rangle, \quad |\alpha|^2 + |\beta|^2 = 1, \tag{1}$$

where $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{C}$ are probability amplitudes. A register of n qubits occupies a 2^n-dimensional Hilbert space $\mathcal{H} = \mathbb{C}^{2^n}$; its

state is a unit vector in that space. This exponential dimension is the property every amplitude-style encoding exploits. Entanglement introduces correlations with no classical counterpart, and measurement collapses the state to a classical bitstring, destroying superposition. Whether superposition, entanglement, or interference confers a practical benefit on NLP tasks remains the field's central open question, and Section VIII examines how far the surveyed evidence can speak to it.

B. PARAMETERIZED QUANTUM CIRCUITS

The dominant computational model in near-term quantum machine learning is the parameterized quantum circuit (PQC), also called a variational quantum circuit [13]. A PQC applies a sequence of unitary gates to an initial state $|\psi_0\rangle$:

$$U(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = U_L(\boldsymbol{\theta}_L) \cdots U_1(\boldsymbol{\theta}_1), \tag{2}$$

where $\boldsymbol{\theta} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ are trainable parameters. Model outputs are expectation values $\langle O \rangle = \langle \psi_0 | U^\dagger(\boldsymbol{\theta})\, O\, U(\boldsymbol{\theta}) | \psi_0 \rangle$, and gradients follow analytically from the parameter-shift rule [14], [15]. PQCs underlie six of the seven encoding families surveyed here; the exception is grammatical encoding, which derives circuit structure from sentence syntax rather than from a fixed ansatz.

PQCs operate under the constraints of noisy intermediate-scale quantum (NISQ) hardware [16]: shallow circuits, limited qubit counts, and significant gate error rates. These constraints bear directly on the encoding step. Every qubit or gate layer spent loading a text representation is a resource unavailable to the learning task.

C. TEXT ENCODING

Text encoding is the procedure that maps a text input x (a token, sentence, or document) to a quantum state $|\phi(x)\rangle \in \mathcal{H}$ or to a parameter vector $\boldsymbol{\theta}(x)$ that initializes a PQC. It is the mandatory interface between classical language data and the quantum circuit. The input x may be a raw token sequence, a classical embedding vector from a pre-trained model, or a parse tree carrying grammatical structure. Which representation is used, and how it is loaded onto qubits, defines the encoding family.

Encoding choices have cascading consequences. The required qubit count, the depth of the state-preparation circuit, the presence of linguistically meaningful entanglement, and the trainability of the resulting model all depend on this single decision. Most QNLP papers nonetheless treat encoding as a fixed implementation detail rather than as a variable to be studied.

D. COMPOSITIONAL DISTRIBUTIONAL SEMANTICS AND DISCOCAT

One of the two main traditions in QNLP originates in categorical linguistics. Coecke, Sadrzadeh, and Clark [17] showed that the compact closed categorical structure of pregroup grammars also governs quantum processes in Hilbert space. In a pregroup grammar, each word carries a grammatical type, and a sentence is parsed by reducing compound types through tensor contractions. These reductions obey the same diagrammatic calculus as quantum processes, so a parse tree translates directly into a quantum circuit: words become parameterized quantum states, and grammatical reductions become cups in a string diagram.

This is the DisCoCat (Distributional Compositional Categorical) model, operationalized as an end-to-end pipeline by [18] and executed on near-term hardware in [19], [20] via the lambeq toolkit. The circuit structure is not fixed in advance: the parse tree determines it, so syntactically distinct sentences produce structurally distinct circuits. This property sets the grammatical encoding family apart from all other families, which treat the sentence as a flat feature vector.

E. QUANTUM MACHINE LEARNING FOR TEXT

The second tradition approaches NLP as a classification problem. It applies quantum feature maps [21] and variational circuits [13] to text-derived feature vectors: classical embeddings (word2vec, GloVe, or transformer outputs) are compressed to the available qubit count, loaded into a PQC via rotation gates or amplitude encoding, and trained end-to-end on labeled examples. Because this approach assumes nothing about grammatical structure, it applies to arbitrary text without a parser and scales more easily to realistic dataset sizes. Its logical endpoint is the hybrid quantum–classical architecture, in which a large classical language model handles high-dimensional representation and a small quantum circuit acts as a downstream head; such architectures have grown in prevalence since 2023.

The two traditions differ not only in how they encode text but in what they claim the quantum component contributes. Compositional models argue for structural alignment between grammar and quantum computation; QML models argue for expressivity or kernel separability.

III. REVIEW METHODOLOGY

This systematic literature review followed the guidelines for secondary studies in software engineering established by Keele and Charters [5]. The protocol was defined before the search was executed. It fixed the search strategy, eligibility criteria, screening procedure, snowball sampling, and data extraction process.

A. SEARCH STRATEGY

Two complementary search queries were executed on two electronic databases, Scopus and IEEE Xplore, to cover both the quantum machine learning and the compositional QNLP literature. The first query targeted the intersection of quantum computing or machine learning with NLP and encoding-related terms. The second targeted QNLP-specific terminology: the DisCoCat and DisCoCirc frameworks, established pipelines that implement them such as the lambeq toolkit, and categorical linguistic concepts. The searches were restricted to English-language journal articles and conference papers

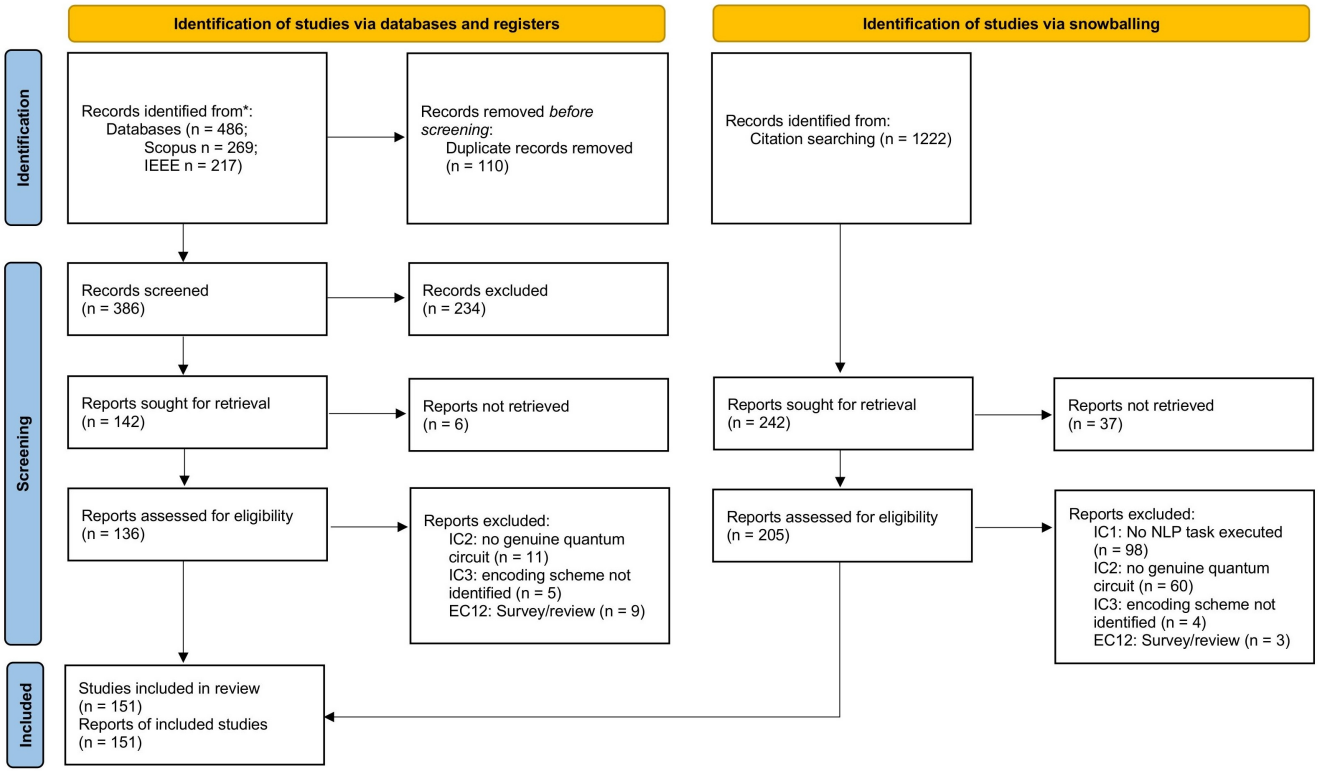


FIGURE 1. PRISMA flow diagram. Final corpus: $n = 125$ (95 from database search, 30 from snowball sampling).

published between 2021 and 2026 (ends included), excluding editorials, book chapters, and erratum notices. They returned 269 results from Scopus and 217 from IEEE Xplore, a combined total of 486 records. Removing 110 duplicates left 376 unique records.

B. ELIGIBILITY CRITERIA

A study was selected if and only if it met all six inclusion criteria below.

- *IC1: NLP task grounding.* The study applies or evaluates the proposed method on at least one natural language processing task, such as classification, similarity, sequence labeling, question answering, or generation.
- *IC2: Genuine quantum computation.* The study implements and evaluates the method in at least a noiseless quantum circuit simulation (exact statevector simulation or equivalent) or on real quantum hardware; merely quantum-inspired classical algorithms, such as tensor-network models or classical approximations of quantum kernels, do not satisfy this criterion.
- *IC3: Encoding scheme identified.* The study names or identifies at least the type of encoding used to map text or text-derived features onto qubits, quantum states, or circuit parameters; a named or typed mention is sufficient, and circuit diagrams or full mathematical derivations are not required.
- *IC4: Peer-reviewed or preprint venue.* The study appeared in a peer-reviewed journal, conference, or workshop, or as a preprint with sufficient methodological detail to assess IC1–IC3.
- *IC5: Language and access.* The study is available in full text, in English, and accessible for review.
- *IC6: Time window.* The study was published between 2021 and 2026 inclusive.

Even if a study satisfied all six inclusion criteria, it was excluded if any of the following applied:

- *EC1: No NLP application.* The study applies quantum machine learning exclusively to non-text domains and offers no transferable text-encoding discussion.
- *EC2: Classical-only encoding.* The study uses encoding purely in the classical sense (tokenization, positional encoding, one-hot) with no quantum circuit involved.
- *EC3: Insufficient detail.* The study is an abstract, extended abstract, or short paper that names an encoding but provides no formal description or reproducible detail.
- *EC4: Duplicate or superseded.* The study is a conference version superseded by an extended journal version; only the more complete version was retained.
- *EC5: Pure hardware focus.* The study addresses hardware benchmarking alone and uses an NLP dataset only as a generic payload, with no discussion of linguistic encoding properties.

- *EC6: Quantum-inspired, classical surrogate, or unverifiable simulation.* The study uses quantum-derived mathematical formalism without instantiating an actual parameterized quantum circuit, reports only classical surrogates of quantum behavior, or claims quantum simulation without evidence of framework or circuit use.
- *EC7: Survey or review paper.* The study is primarily a secondary study rather than an original research contribution; such papers were retained as reference material and are discussed in Section I-C.

C. SCREENING AND SELECTION

Screening proceeded in two stages. In the first stage, all 376 records were assessed on title and abstract alone for broad topical relevance to quantum computing applied to text. No IC/EC criteria were applied at this stage; its only purpose was to remove records clearly outside the scope of the review. This eliminated 234 records and left 142 reports sought for retrieval, of which 6 could not be retrieved, leaving 136 reports assessed for eligibility.

In the second stage, the full text of each of the 136 reports was assessed against the complete set of inclusion and exclusion criteria of Section III-B. This yielded 95 papers for the primary corpus. The remaining 41 retrieved reports were excluded or retained as surveys, mainly under IC2 (no genuine quantum circuit; $n = 15$), IC3 (encoding scheme not identified; $n = 6$), EC6 (quantum-inspired, classical surrogate, or unverifiable simulation; $n = 3$), and EC7 (survey or review; $n = 11$); six records were excluded under other criteria.

D. SNOWBALL SAMPLING

To reduce the risk of missing relevant work not indexed by the two databases, two rounds of backward and forward snowball sampling [22] were applied to the surveys excluded under EC7. Surveys were chosen as the seed set, rather than the included primary studies, for two reasons. First, Wohlin's guidelines ask for a start set that is small, diverse, and well connected to the target population; in a field as young as QNLP, a survey's reference list is by construction a curated, near-exhaustive sample of the primary literature up to its search date, so each survey seed contributes far more unique candidates than a primary study, whose citations concentrate on the same few foundational works. Second, forward snowballing from surveys exploits a stable citation practice: new primary studies routinely cite the field's reviews, so the papers citing a survey are enriched for precisely the recent primary work that database indexing lags behind. The cost of this choice is that a primary study neither cited by nor citing any survey of the field remains invisible to the procedure; this residual risk is acknowledged in Section X. Reference lists and citing papers yielded 1222 unique candidate records. Title-and-abstract screening for broad topical relevance reduced this set to 242 reports sought for retrieval, of which 37 could not be retrieved, leaving 205 reports assessed for eligibility. Full-text assessment against the complete IC/EC protocol then added 30 papers to the corpus. The remaining 175 retrieved reports were excluded or retained as surveys. The main grounds were IC1 (no NLP task; $n = 74$), IC2 (no genuine quantum circuit; $n = 52$), IC6 (outside the time window; $n = 20$), IC3 (encoding scheme not identified; $n = 4$), and EC7 (survey or review; $n = 22$); three records were excluded under other criteria.

E. FINAL CORPUS

The final primary corpus comprises 125 papers: 95 from database search and 30 from snowball sampling. As shown in Fig. 1, the selection process is summarized following the PRISMA flow diagram convention.

F. ANALYSIS FRAMEWORK: THE ENCODING COMPARISON INSTRUMENT

The guidelines of Keele and Charters [5] prescribe the process of a secondary study. The preceding subsections instantiate each of its stages: planning and protocol definition (fixed before the search), search strategy, study selection, and, through the extraction schema described below, data extraction and synthesis. What the guidelines deliberately do not prescribe is a domain-specific comparison instrument: a fixed scheme by which the primary studies of a particular field are classified and made commensurable. For a review whose object is the encoding step itself, such an instrument is the methodological core, and its design is a contribution of this survey in its own right. The remainder of the article refers to it as the encoding comparison framework. Every classification, cross-tabulation, and trend reported in Sections IV–IX is an application of this framework, not an ad hoc reading of the corpus.

The framework classifies every primary study along a fixed set of dimensions, each with a closed value vocabulary. The two primary dimensions are the encoding family, defined by the point at which text or text-derived features enter the quantum computation (Section IV), and the model family, defined by the architecture that consumes the encoded state. Secondary dimensions capture the resources and evidence attached to that choice: qubit count and whether qubit scaling was tested, execution regime, presence of a classical baseline, and whether scalability was discussed. Each dimension is operationalized as one or more columns of the structured extraction sheet compiled during data extraction. The framework and the extraction sheet are therefore two views of the same instrument.

Assignment follows explicit decision rules. A study is classified by its dominant encoding interface: the one that carries the text representation into the circuit whose output is evaluated. Auxiliary encodings used only in ablations or baselines do not change the class; a study whose main pipeline is amplitude-encoded but that reports an angle-encoded ablation is classified as amplitude. Where a pipeline stacks a classical encoder in front of a quantum layer, the study is classified as `hybrid_embed` only when the classical stage is co-trained or purpose-built as part of the con-

tribution; a frozen pretrained embedding feeding a standard rotation layer remains `angle`. The `hybrid_nn` model family covers any architecture in which a classical deep network (transformer, recurrent, or convolutional, not limited to LLM-based extractors) performs the main representational work and the quantum circuit is a submodule. A bare variational classifier over precomputed features is `vqc`, even when those features come from a deep model. Compositional (DisCoCat-style) studies are identified by circuit topology derived from a grammatical parse, regardless of toolkit. These disambiguation rules were fixed during protocol definition and applied uniformly during extraction.

Extraction and classification were performed by one author and reviewed by a second; disagreements were resolved by discussion against the decision rules above, and each row of the extraction sheet carries an explicit confidence grade reflecting how completely the primary study reports the extracted fields. The corpus is graded high for 54 studies, medium for 64, and low for 7, the low grades marking studies whose reporting leaves part of the extracted record underspecified, most often the gate-level loading rule. Dropping those seven rows shifts every headline distribution reported below by at most 1.3 percentage points, so all figures are reported over the full corpus of 125.

The corpus is small enough that many of the cross-tabulations below have cells in the low single digits, and every count is a complete enumeration of the corpus rather than an estimate from a sample of it. Distributions are therefore reported descriptively. Where the article asserts an association between two dimensions rather than simply describing one, it reports a χ^2 test of independence with Cramér's V as the effect size and a Monte Carlo p-value over 2×10^4 permutations of the row labels, since the expected cell counts are too small for the asymptotic approximation to be trusted; two-group contrasts use Fisher's exact test. Percentages computed on denominators below ten are reported with their denominators and are not read as evidence of a difference.

IV. TAXONOMY OF TEXT ENCODING STRATEGIES

The encoding problem in QNLP is not a single operation. Depending on the study, text can enter the quantum computation as rotation parameters, as amplitudes of a prepared state, as a grammar-derived circuit, as a structured feature map, or through a more specialized interface such as repeated data injection, a hybrid neural representation, or an observable. These mechanisms are often discussed under the same term, "encoding," although they make different assumptions about where linguistic information is represented and which quantum resource is being used.

This section shows how these mechanisms are organized into the proposed taxonomy as shown in Table 1, applying the encoding comparison framework of Section III-F: every study discussed below is assigned to exactly one encoding family by the framework's dominant-interface decision rule. The classification is based on the point at which text or text-derived features enter the quantum computation. A study is therefore not classified by the optimizer, measurement rule, downstream classifier, or ansatz alone. These elements are treated as design choices that can be combined with an encoding category. This distinction is important because an applied QNLP pipeline is usually a combination of several decisions: a classical text representation, a quantum encoding interface, a trainable or fixed circuit, and a measurement or kernel rule.

The final analyzed corpus contains 125 primary studies, and the taxonomy comprises seven encoding families. Four are major families: angle encoding ($n = 51$), amplitude encoding ($n = 28$), syntactic/DisCoCat encoding ($n = 29$), and structured feature-map encoding ($n = 9$). Three are emerging families that together account for the remaining eight studies: data re-uploading ($n = 4$), hybrid classical–quantum embedding ($n = 3$), and Hamiltonian/observable encoding ($n = 1$). To use the taxonomy, one may first identify whether the text representation is loaded as a flat vector, imposed through linguistic structure, or used to define a kernel geometry. The next design question is whether the encoding is intended to minimize qubit count, preserve linguistic composition, define a kernel geometry, or improve trainable circuit expressivity. Not all combinations are equally practical on near-term devices. The main tradeoff is between width, depth, state-preparation cost, and the amount of linguistic structure preserved by the quantum circuit [13], [16], [23].

A. ANGLE ENCODING

Angle encoding is the dominant category in the corpus. In this scheme, a classical vector $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, \ldots, x_d)$ is mapped to rotation parameters,

$$|\phi(\mathbf{x})\rangle = \prod_{j=1}^{d'} R_{\alpha_j}(s_j(\mathbf{x}))|0\rangle^{\otimes n}, \tag{3}$$

where R_{α_j} is a rotation around the x, y, or z axis and $s_j(\cdot)$ denotes scaling, projection, or feature selection. The input is rarely raw text. It is usually a TF-IDF vector, a word or sentence embedding, a transformer representation, or a compact feature vector produced by a preceding classical model.

The prevalence of angle encoding follows from its implementation simplicity. Rotations fit naturally into parameterized quantum circuits and support the standard gradient-based training workflow of variational algorithms, and they avoid arbitrary-state preparation, which makes them convenient for small simulated or hardware-oriented experiments [14], [15]. What makes the family a single encoding category is this shared rotation mechanism; within it, the corpus studies differ along two encoding-level axes: the rotation construction itself and the classical source that supplies the angles.

The first axis is the rotation construction. The most common pattern assigns one feature to one single-axis rotation,

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TABLE 1. Taxonomy of text encoding strategies in the final primary corpus: four major families and three emerging families.

Encoding family	Corpus count	Core mechanism	Typical model families
Major families			
Angle encoding	51	Text features are mapped to single-qubit rotation parameters, typically through R_x, R_y, or R_z gates.	VQC, hybrid neural, recurrent neural, quantum transformer
Amplitude encoding	28	A normalized feature vector is loaded into the amplitudes of an n-qubit state in a 2^n-dimensional Hilbert space.	VQC, quantum kernel, quantum transformer, hybrid neural
Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding	29	Sentence grammar determines a string diagram or circuit; word meanings are attached to grammatical types and composed by reductions.	Compositional QNLP
Structured feature maps	9	Classical text features parameterize structured circuits such as IQP, ZZFeatureMap, ZFeatureMap, PauliFeatureMap, or Pauli-Y variants.	Quantum kernel, VQC, hybrid neural, quantum transformer
Emerging families			
Data re-uploading	4	Input features are injected repeatedly across circuit layers, alternating data-dependent rotations with trainable transformations.	VQC, recurrent neural
Hybrid embedding	3	A classical encoder first produces a compact text representation that is then passed to a quantum layer.	Hybrid neural, VQC
Hamiltonian/observable encoding	1	Text-derived information is represented through Pauli-string Hamiltonians or observables rather than only through prepared quantum states.	VQC

typically an R_Y rotation as in the default angle-embedding routine [23]–[25], though R_X is also used [26]–[28] and some studies apply combined R_Y and R_Z rotations per qubit [29]. A denser variant stores more than one feature on each qubit through successive rotations about different axes, trading a shorter register for greater loading depth [30].

The second axis is the classical source of the angles, and it is where the studies vary most, because the rotation parameters are numbers rather than text and so the encoding's content is fixed by the front-end that produces them. Some studies load sparse lexical statistics such as TF-IDF, bag-of-words, or n-gram vectors [31]–[33]; others load static word embeddings [25], [34], [35]; and a large, growing group compresses contextual transformer embeddings, for instance reducing a 768-dimensional BERT or DistilBERT vector to a handful of features before rotation [36]–[39]. A further group derives the angles from deeper classical feature extractors or from handcrafted linguistic features [40]–[42]. In each case a dimensionality-reduction step, whether PCA, a linear projection, or an autoencoder, sits between the text representation and the rotations and is effectively part of the encoding, since it determines what survives into the quantum circuit.

The limitation is inherent in this design. Encoding cost grows with the number of retained features, so a model must spend more rotations, more qubits, or more layers as it keeps more of the input. Angle encoding therefore pushes the hard part of the problem onto classical dimensionality reduction, which makes it practical for NISQ-scale prototypes but also means the quantum circuit often operates on a heavily compressed view of the linguistic input.

B. AMPLITUDE ENCODING

Amplitude encoding maps a normalized vector $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{2^n}$ or $\mathbb{C}^{2^n}$ to a quantum state,

$$|\phi(\mathbf{x})\rangle = \sum_{i=0}^{2^n-1} x_i|i\rangle, \quad \sum_i |x_i|^2 = 1. \tag{4}$$

For NLP, the appeal is immediate. A high-dimensional sentence embedding can, in principle, be represented with logarithmically many qubits: a 768-dimensional transformer vector, for example, can be padded and normalized into a ten-qubit state. This density is why amplitude encoding is most often paired with dense contextual representations, above all BERT, ELECTRA, and other transformer embeddings, and to a lesser extent with static word embeddings or TF-IDF and bag-of-words vectors [43]–[46].

Because the register holds exactly 2^n amplitudes, the encoding is defined as much by how the source vector is fitted to that dimension as by the loading step itself. When the embedding is already close to a power of two, it is simply normalized and zero-padded, as when a 768-dimensional vector is loaded into ten qubits [44], [47]. When it is not, or when the qubit budget is smaller, a classical reduction such as PCA, t-SNE, or UMAP is applied first, so that the reduction and the amplitude map together fix the geometry the circuit actually sees [48]–[50].

The reason to accept this encoding is representational. Storing a large vector in a small register makes overlap- and inner-product-based operations natural, because the normalized state is the embedding. SWAP-test similarity and quantum-kernel pipelines exploit this directly, letting the geometry of the encoded state stand in for the similarity structure of the embedding space [21], [46], [51]. A distinct thread goes further and encodes complex-valued rather than real-valued amplitudes, representing tokens as complex state vectors and building complex-valued semantic operations on top of them, which uses a property of the amplitude space that has no direct classical-vector analogue [45], [52].

The signature difficulty is state preparation, and it is where the studies differ most in how honestly the cost is treated. Most rely on exact library routines that prepare an arbitrary amplitude vector, with the preparation depth absorbed into a simulator call [43], [44]. A smaller set confronts the cost directly through divide-and-conquer amplitude encoding, which trades circuit depth against ancilla width and is validated on `ibm_kyoto` for a word-sense disambiguation subset alongside the noiseless-simulation classification results [49]. Loading an arbitrary vector generally requires a circuit whose depth can offset the qubit savings, so experiments that hide this behind high-level routines remain useful

for comparing representation strategies under a fixed qubit budget but should not be read as hardware-ready evidence unless the preparation cost is included.

C. SYNTACTIC AND DISCOCAT ENCODING

Syntactic encoding is the characteristic interface of compositional QNLP. Instead of first reducing a sentence to a flat feature vector, the model begins with a grammatical derivation. Words are assigned grammatical types, the sentence is reduced according to a pregroup or related grammar, and the resulting string diagram is translated into a tensor network or quantum circuit [17]. What makes the family a single encoding category is a shared two-stage construction: a diagram that fixes the circuit topology from grammar, followed by a rule that turns that diagram into a parameterized qubit circuit. The 29 studies in the corpus differ mainly along these two stages, and it is these differences, rather than the downstream task, that define the encoding-level variants below.

The first stage is how the diagram is obtained. The canonical route is a pregroup derivation, in which each word receives a pregroup type and grammatical reductions become the wires that connect word boxes; pregroup parsing is efficient and underlies most DisCoCat implementations [18]–[20]. In practice this parse is often produced by a broader-coverage CCG parser and then rewritten into DisCoCat form, as in studies that derive their diagrams with the Bobcat or DepCCG parsers before compilation [53]–[55]. A second variant replaces the parse with a fixed reader that imposes a uniform composition rule instead of syntax: a bag-of-words reader composes words through a single commutative spider, and a word-sequence reader composes them left to right into a tensor train, both of which appear as structure-free counterparts to the grammar-based diagrams [18], [56], [57]. These readers trade syntactic fidelity for shallower, more uniform circuits and are frequently used as structure-free reference points within DisCoCat studies. A third variant changes the scope of the diagram itself, lifting the sentence-level construction to the discourse level so that pronouns and cross-sentence reference are represented, as in DisCoCirc-style coreference models [58].

The second stage is how the diagram becomes a qubit circuit. Each atomic type is assigned a fixed number of qubits, so the noun and sentence types set the circuit width, grammatical reductions compile to Bell-style effects between wires, and function words such as relative or possessive pronouns are realized as Kronecker or GHZ spiders [20]. Word boxes are then filled by a parameterized ansatz, and the dominant choices are the IQP ansatz used by default in lambeq and, where circuit expressivity is compared, the Sim-14, Sim-15, and strongly entangling ansätze [4], [18]. Some studies design task-specific ansätze on top of the same grammatical skeleton rather than proposing a new diagram [53], [59]. A final variant intervenes between the two stages by rewriting the diagram before compilation: ZX-calculus is used to simplify the grammar-derived circuit and reduce its resource cost [60].

This category differs from vector-loading schemes. The circuit is not only a host for numerical features; its wiring reflects syntactic composition. This gives syntactic encoding a clear interpretability advantage. Grammatical roles, reductions, and word interactions remain visible in the model structure, which explains why nearly all compositional papers in the corpus use this category.

The tradeoff is flexibility. Syntactic encoding depends on parsers, grammar formalisms, and sentence structures that can be translated into manageable circuits. Many experiments therefore use short, controlled, or grammar-friendly datasets. As sentences become longer, noisier, multilingual, or document-level, the parser and circuit-growth requirements become more restrictive. Thus, syntactic encoding is the most linguistically structured category, but it is also the category that most depends on the availability of a reliable grammar-to-circuit pipeline.

D. STRUCTURED FEATURE-MAP ENCODING

Structured feature maps encode data through circuits with phase rotations, Pauli operators, and entangling gates whose parameters depend on products or interactions of input features, so that the encoded state defines an implicit feature space in which examples are compared by state similarity [21]. Within the corpus the map is drawn from a small set of families. The most common is the ZZ feature map, which introduces pairwise feature interactions through ZZ entangling rotations [61]–[63]. IQP embeddings, which apply diagonal phase gates in the Hadamard basis, are used similarly [64], [65]. A few studies construct higher-order maps from selected Pauli terms, for example combined X, Y, and ZZ gates or a hierarchy of Pauli-Y and second-order YY interactions, in order to encode richer correlations [65], [66]. One study instead reads the feature map out through local observables, using a projected quantum kernel to obtain a lower-variance similarity estimate [67].

Because both the qubit count and the number of encoded interactions grow with the input dimension, a structured feature map is almost always preceded by an aggressive classical reduction. In practice this is usually PCA to on the order of ten to a few dozen components, and occasionally a wavelet or related projection, applied to an already compressed text representation such as a TF-IDF vector or a reduced transformer embedding [64], [68], [69]. The reduction is thus part of the encoding, since it fixes both the qubit budget and which feature interactions the map can express.

The benefit is that feature interactions are built into the map. Rather than using the circuit only to host features, the feature map defines the geometry in which examples are compared, which makes the approach attractive for testing whether a quantum kernel yields a useful similarity space for text.

The limitation is that the feature map becomes a strong modeling assumption. Performance depends on whether the chosen interactions are relevant to the linguistic task and on the preceding compression, so a structured feature map offers

a principled kernel-oriented interface whose usefulness is set jointly by map design and the reduction that feeds it.

E. EMERGING ENCODING FAMILIES

The three remaining families are individually too small to rank among the major families; the taxonomy classifies them as emerging, each defined by a distinct mechanism. Data re-uploading addresses the small-register setting by injecting the input features multiple times across the depth of a circuit: rather than loading the data once and then applying only trainable gates, the model alternates data-dependent rotations with trainable transformations, so expressivity grows with depth rather than with qubit count. The four corpus studies differ mainly in what is re-uploaded and where. One implements a bricklayer of dense rotation gates in which repeated feature injection, rather than one-shot angle loading, is the defining encoding choice [70]. A recurrent variant re-uploads code-token embeddings across successive quantum embedding layers, so the same feature stream re-enters the circuit at every recurrent step [71]. A third injects lexical features repeatedly into a seven-qubit NISQ classifier, explicitly trading qubit width for circuit depth [72], and a fourth re-uploads sentence-transformer embeddings across the layers of an eighteen-qubit circuit, using qubit count and depth jointly to control capacity in a quantum LLM fine-tuning setting [73]. The shared advantage is that expressivity can be raised without more qubits; the shared drawback is that the encoding burden moves from width to depth.

Hybrid embedding is a system-level interface rather than a single gate-level rule. A classical model first produces a compact representation, and a quantum layer then consumes it through an angle, amplitude, or less explicitly specified feature-injection mechanism. In the corpus the three studies are distinguished mainly by how aggressively the classical stage compresses and how clearly the quantum loading is described. One compresses fused text and image embeddings into an eight-dimensional latent vector and matches it to an eight-qubit VQC for emotion recognition in dialogue [74]. Another compresses GloVe and fastText code-token embeddings into a minimal intermediate representation before a four-qubit vulnerability classifier, without specifying the gate-level loading rule [75], and a third fuses GloVe text features with VGG16 visual features through a quantum layer for misinformation detection, again with no stated state-preparation method [76]. This underspecification is characteristic of the family and feeds its main difficulty, attribution: when most semantic processing happens in the classical stage, the independent contribution of the quantum layer is hard to isolate.

Hamiltonian and observable encoding is even more specialized. The single corpus study maps text-derived vectors onto Pauli-string Hamiltonians and reads them out as quantum observables rather than preparing them as amplitude or rotation states, which avoids conventional state encoding entirely and is reported to keep qubit and gate complexity logarithmic [77]. This relocates the loading problem from state preparation to observable design and may sidestep some state-preparation costs, but with only one study in the corpus the evidence base is too thin to characterize the family beyond this single design point.

F. TAXONOMIC IMPLICATIONS

The taxonomy makes clear that encoding is not a neutral preprocessing choice in QNLP. It determines which linguistic information reaches the quantum circuit, how much classical compression is required, and where the main resource bottleneck appears. Angle and amplitude encodings start from numerical text representations and differ mainly in how they trade circuit width, depth, and state-preparation cost. Syntactic encoding instead gives the grammatical analysis a structural role in the circuit. Structured feature maps define the comparison space used by kernel methods, while the emerging families modify these patterns through repeated data injection, classical–quantum embedding layers, or observable-based representations.

This distinction matters because many cross-paper comparisons implicitly compare different views of the input rather than only different learning architectures. A VQC using compressed word or sentence vectors, a DisCoCat circuit generated from a parser, and a kernel model built around a designed feature map make different commitments about what should be preserved from the original text. Their results are therefore shaped jointly by the classical representation, the compression method, the encoding circuit, the ansatz, the measurement rule, and the execution backend.

The taxonomy is therefore used in the remainder of the survey to organize the evidence, not to rank the encodings. The available studies do not yet show that any single family is generally superior across QNLP tasks. Instead, they show that the encoding stage frames the experiment itself: it defines the form of the linguistic input, constrains the feasible circuit resources, and conditions how performance and scalability results should be read.

V. COMPARATIVE ANALYSIS OF ENCODING FAMILIES

This section uses the taxonomy to assess how far the main encoding families have developed in practice. Rather than revisiting the definition of each family, the focus is on what the corpus reveals about their use: which encodings have become standard design choices, which remain exploratory, and how strongly the reported results are supported by datasets, baselines, hardware assumptions, and scalability analysis.

The analysis is based on the final corpus of 125 primary studies, classified under the encoding comparison framework of Section III-F. Each study is assigned to its dominant encoding interface, although most implementations combine several steps before measurement: text representation, feature reduction, circuit encoding, a trainable or fixed quantum model, and a readout rule. This matters because an observed result is rarely attributable to the encoding alone. It often reflects the full pipeline in which the encoding is embedded.

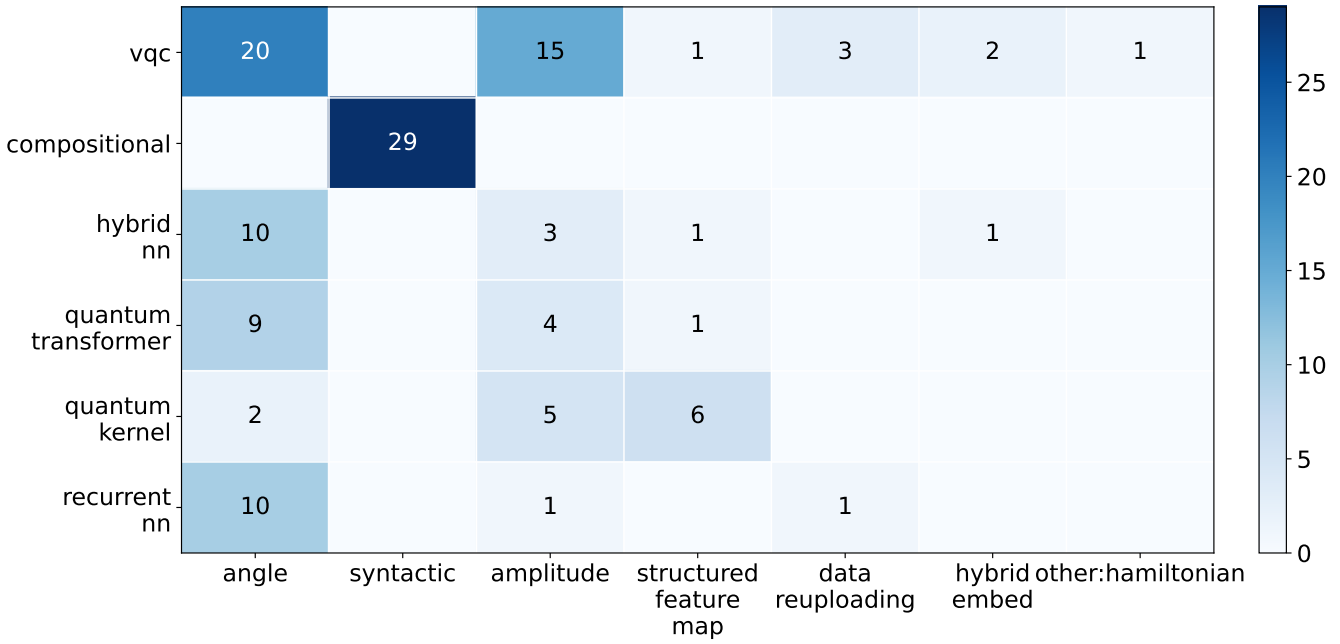


FIGURE 2. Encoding family by model family in the final primary corpus. Cell values report the number of studies assigned to each encoding–model-family pair.

Before examining the families individually, this section establishes that the choice of encoding is not independent of the model family in which it appears. As shown in Figure 2, which crosses the two dimensions, the resulting distribution is far from uniform: most encodings concentrate in one or two model families rather than spreading evenly across them. The three dominant encodings account for 108 of the 125 studies, yet two of them are all but fixed by the architecture they serve. One cell has to be set aside before that claim can be made. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding and the compositional model family coincide exactly, all 29 studies of the one being the same 29 studies as the other, but this is a property of the classification and not a finding about the field: Section III-F identifies both categories by the same property, a circuit topology derived from a grammatical parse, so the two labels cannot come apart by construction. The coupling claim therefore has to rest on the rest of the corpus, and it does. Excluding the compositional studies, encoding family and model family remain associated across the remaining 96 ($\chi^2 = 38.7$, dof $= 20$, Monte Carlo $p = 0.006$, Cramér's $V = 0.32$, a moderate effect). Structured feature maps tie to quantum kernels, where six of the nine structured-map studies live. Angle encoding, by contrast, is the general-purpose default shared across the remaining gate-model architectures, and amplitude encoding co-resides with it inside VQCs and kernel methods. Comparing "encoding families" across the corpus is therefore partly comparing the model families they are bound to. This motivates the approach of the four subsections that follow: each holds one established family fixed and asks how its use changes across the contexts in which it appears. The emerging families are treated last.

A. ANGLE ENCODING ACROSS MODEL FAMILIES

Angle encoding is the one interface that is not bound to a single architecture, so it is the natural place to begin: rather than asking which encoding each model family prefers, the analysis holds the encoding fixed and asks how the same data-dependent rotation is repurposed as the surrounding model changes. The 51 angle-encoding studies distribute across five model families, VQCs (20), hybrid neural models (10), recurrent models (10), quantum transformers (9), and quantum kernels (2), and their treatment of the rotation differs enough that "angle encoding" names a role rather than a fixed operation. As shown in Table 2, which summarizes the split, the remainder of this subsection reads it family by family. Qubit budgets are reported by 34 of the 51 studies and, with one structural exception, stay within a narrow 2–8 band, so the differences below are differences in where the rotation sits, not in how wide a register it drives.

In VQCs, angle encoding appears in its canonical form: the rotation layer is the quantum front door, followed only by a trainable ansatz and a measurement, so the encoding carries the entire burden of moving text into the circuit. This is also the family with the widest spread of classical front-ends, which is why the compression the encoding demands is most visible here. Studies load TF-IDF or bag-of-words features [78], transformer embeddings reduced by one or two orders of magnitude, from BERT's 768 dimensions to ten [36], from DistilBERT to four [37], or as far down as two values before an R_x layer [79], and in a few cases handcrafted linguistic descriptors such as character entropy and diacritic counts [42]. Because the circuit is the model rather than a component of it, the VQC setting also hosts almost all of the

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TABLE 2. Angle encoding split by model family in the final primary corpus.

Model family	Studies	Median (range) qubits	Typical classical front-end	Role of the angle rotation
VQC	20	4.5 (2–16)	TF-IDF, BERT/SBERT/DistilBERT, handcrafted features	Sole quantum front door before a trainable ansatz
Hybrid neural	10	4.5 (2–8)	Output of a classical transformer/RNN encoder	Submodule consuming an already-compact representation
Recurrent neural	10	4 (4–8)	Word or BERT embeddings, per token	Data input inside the recurrent cell, re-entered each step
Quantum transformer	9	4 (4–28)	Word embeddings, multimodal features	State preparation for quantum attention
Quantum kernel	2	4 (4)	TF-IDF or compressed feature vectors	Definition of a similarity-circuit geometry

corpus's controlled encoding comparisons: a QCNN study finds angle encoding the best of angle, amplitude, and IQP maps [80], and a sentiment study finds an R_y angle map beating a Pauli feature map under matched circuits [23]. The same canonical pattern recurs across further tasks and domains in the corpus. Examples include a dressed-quantum-circuit transfer-learning classifier built on frozen BERT embeddings [81]; SBERT embeddings fused with Pauli expectation values for scholarly AI-text detection [82]; angle-encoded word-sense disambiguation on WordNet sentence-sense pairs [83]; and a privacy-oriented quantum language model trained on NISQ hardware and transferred to classical downstream tasks [84]. Further instances are post-hoc calibration of language-model confidence via a variational circuit [85]; a quantum depthwise-convolutional classifier that pairs amplitude-encoded word embeddings with an angle-encoded sentence representation [86]; noise-robust multimodal sentiment analysis trained with an SPSA optimizer [87]; and an all-quantum LSTM with a self-attention block whose noise robustness is tested explicitly [88]. The attribution of any result is comparatively clean here, but at the price of a circuit that only ever sees a heavily compressed view of the input.

Hybrid neural models move the rotation downstream. The angle layer is no longer the front door but a submodule embedded in a larger classical network, so a transformer or recurrent encoder performs most of the representational work and the quantum circuit consumes a representation that has already been compressed classically. This is visible both in the front-ends, MARBERT, AraBERT, or XLM-R embeddings compressed into shallow circuits whose Pauli readouts are fused back into the classical model [38], a BERT-and-GRU multimodal pipeline projected into a two-qubit circuit, a transformer generator whose tokens are injected as rotations [89], and in the registers, which are the smallest in the angle subcorpus. The same downstream-submodule role recurs in further hybrid designs. These include a quantum fuzzy neural network layered on top of angle-encoded features for noise-robust sentiment analysis [90]; quantum tensor-network fusion of text, audio, and visual streams for multimodal sentiment [91], [92]; and a compact variational embedding layer used as a drop-in replacement for a classical word-embedding layer [93]. Two further designs are a quantum adaptation of the Mamba selective state-space architecture for language modeling [94] and a self-supervised, GLUE-benchmarked quantum-classical BERT variant pre-trained under an explicit noise model [95]. The cost is the mirror image of the VQC case: because the classical encoder dominates, the independent contribution of the quantum rotation is the hardest to isolate of any family.

Recurrent models repurpose the rotation temporally rather than spatially. Here angle encoding is applied inside a quantum recurrent cell, a QLSTM or QRNN block, so the same rotation interface is re-entered at every step of the sequence rather than once at the input [24], [25], [29], [39]. This keeps the register deliberately narrow, a median of four qubits and never more than eight, because width is fixed by the cell while information enters through repeated application along the sequence, which brings this usage closer in spirit to data re-uploading than to a single loading step. The R_y-based AngleEmbedding is the recurring choice [24], and the family is the one most oriented toward token-level tasks such as part-of-speech tagging [96] alongside sequential sentiment classification, code-mixed part-of-speech tagging across three Indian language pairs [97], recency-weighted mental-health-aware sentiment monitoring [98], frozen-BERT emotion recognition [99], and movie-review sentiment classification competitive with classical RNN, GRU, and LSTM baselines [100].

Quantum transformers use the rotation to prepare the states that attention then compares, and this is the one place where the usual qubit discipline breaks. Features are mapped into per-token quantum states whose overlaps play the role of attention scores, so register width scales with sequence and embedding size rather than with a compressed feature count. QNet assigns one qubit per token–embedding-dimension pair and splits axes by role, with R_x carrying the embedding value and R_z a positional phase [26]. A near-term self-attention study reaches 28 qubits, the widest register in the entire angle subcorpus [101]. Other studies keep the per-token construction but vary what the attention operates over: a quantum self-attention network built on the QSANN architecture [102], a quantum graph transformer that folds self-attention into a graph message-passing framework [103], a mixed-density-matrix formulation of quantum self-attention [104], and a noisy-simulation image-text quantum transformer that fuses a text PQC with a vision-transformer PQC [105]. Most implementations avoid this blow-up by keeping the quantum attention block small [34], [106], but the family is nonetheless the only one whose structural logic pushes angle encoding beyond the near-universal 4–8 qubit band.

TABLE 3. Amplitude encoding split by model family in the final primary corpus.

Model family	Studies	Median (range) qubits	Typical classical front-end	Role of the amplitude state
VQC	15	10 (9–16)	Normalized BERT/ELECTRA/DistilBERT/SBERT embeddings	Input state prepared for a trainable ansatz
Quantum kernel	5	10.5 (7–12)	Word/sentence embeddings, TF-IDF vectors	Overlap geometry read out by a SWAP test
Quantum transformer	4	7.5 (4–12)	Word or contextual token embeddings	State preparation for quantum attention
Hybrid neural	3	9 (6–12)	Multimodal or token embeddings	High-fidelity submodule after a classical encoder
Recurrent neural	1	—	Chinese word embeddings	Per-gate state inside a decomposed QLSTM

Quantum kernels are represented by only two angle studies, and the contrast with the previous families is instructive. When angle encoding does appear in a kernel method, the rotation defines a similarity-circuit geometry rather than feeding a trainable ansatz [31], [107]; but kernel methods overwhelmingly prefer purpose-built structured feature maps (Section V-D), so angle encoding is a marginal, borrowed choice here rather than a native one. This is the exception that confirms the pattern: angle encoding travels everywhere, but in the one family whose encoding is itself the model, a different interface wins.

Taken together, the split shows that holding the encoding fixed does not hold the pipeline fixed. The same rotation is a complete front door in VQCs, a downstream submodule in hybrid models, a per-step cell input in recurrent models, an attention-state preparation in quantum transformers, and a borrowed similarity map in kernels. These roles differ in exactly the dimensions that matter for evaluation: how much of the model the encoding accounts for, whether register width is set by compression or by architecture, and how cleanly the quantum contribution can be attributed. The one invariant across all five families is the heavy classical compression that precedes the circuit. This confirms the encoding–model-family correlation of Fig. 2 from the opposite direction: even when the encoding is the same, it is the model family that determines what the encoding does, which is why angle-encoded results are not directly comparable across architectures despite sharing a label.

B. AMPLITUDE ENCODING ACROSS MODEL FAMILIES

Amplitude encoding is the natural counterpoint to angle encoding, and reading its 28 studies through the same per-family lens makes the contrast concrete. It appears in the same host families, VQCs (15), quantum kernels (5), quantum transformers (4), hybrid neural models (3), and a single recurrent model, but with an almost inverted profile, both in which families it favors and in the resources it consumes. Where angle encoding compresses text to a handful of rotation parameters over a 2–8 qubit register, amplitude encoding loads a full normalized vector into the 2^n amplitudes of an n-qubit state, so its registers cluster near $\log_2$ of the embedding dimension rather than at a fixed small width. As shown in Table 3, which summarizes the split, the immediate signal is the qubit column: every family sits at a median near ten qubits, against the median of four seen for angle encoding, because the encoding is chosen precisely to avoid the aggressive projection that angle encoding requires.

VQCs are again the dominant host, but the role differs from the angle case. Amplitude encoding here prepares the input state that a trainable ansatz, typically EfficientSU2 or RealAmplitudes, then classifies [48]. The front-end is almost exclusively a dense contextual embedding normalized and padded to the nearest power of two: a 768-dimensional SBERT vector into ten qubits [44], BERT or ELECTRA embeddings padded from 768 to 1024 amplitudes over ten qubits [43], and mBERT embeddings reused across multilingual transfer [47]. The $\log_2$ packing is stated as the point of the method rather than an implementation detail [108]. Where a study compares the two interfaces directly, it frames amplitude encoding as the high-fidelity option and angle encoding as the cheaper fallback: one sentence-classification model reports its amplitude variant at 0.81 accuracy against 0.71 for an MLP-reduced angle variant of the same system [44]. The same host role recurs across further tasks. Examples include an attention-augmented amplitude classifier evaluated on a non-standard Kaggle text corpus [109]; an Electra-based amplitude transfer-learning system for Italian-language sentiment analysis [110]; and an amplitude-encoded QRNN with ancilla-mediated state transfer applied to code-mixed social-media text [111]. Further instances are a complex-amplitude variational topic model that reduces parameter count relative to a classical neural topic model while improving topic coherence [112]; a BERT-to-nine-qubit amplitude pipeline for smishing and spam-text detection [113]; and a ten-qubit amplitude classifier applied to word-sense disambiguation in a low-resource ancient language [114]. This family is also markedly more recent than its angle counterpart, with every VQC amplitude study appearing from 2024 onward, which tracks the point at which transformer embeddings became the default text representation and made a dense-vector encoding worth its qubit cost.

Quantum kernels are where amplitude encoding is most at home, in contrast to the marginal, borrowed status angle encoding held there. When a normalized embedding is amplitude-encoded, the inner product of two states equals the inner product of the underlying vectors, so a SWAP test or state-overlap estimate reads out cosine-like semantic similarity directly, with no training involved [45], [51], [115]. This is why the semantic-similarity task cluster of the corpus lives almost entirely in this cell, and why kernel studies apply the same construction to fastText, GloVe, or BERT embeddings and to TF-IDF vectors feeding a quantum nearest-neighbor classifier [46], [116]. The fit is principled rather

than incidental: the encoded state is the geometry the kernel measures, and some studies push the density further with complex-amplitude variants that map pairs of dimensions to the real and imaginary parts of each amplitude, halving the register again [45].

Quantum transformers use amplitude encoding, as they use angle encoding, to prepare the states that attention compares, but over noticeably smaller and more variable registers than in the VQC case [117]–[121]. Amplitude encoding is rarer here than angle encoding (four studies against nine) because preparing an arbitrary state for every token is more expensive than injecting a rotation. The studies that do adopt it tend to encode a single pooled or sentence-level vector rather than a per-token sequence. Hybrid neural models place amplitude encoding in the same downstream-submodule role that angle encoding occupies there, but selected explicitly for fidelity. One knowledge-graph study contrasts an amplitude model chosen for high-dimensional fidelity against an angle model chosen for gate efficiency, the trade-off between the two families stated within a single system [122]. A multimodal model amplitude-encodes fused visual and textual features [123], and a space-efficient hybrid architecture amplitude-encodes representations for natural-language-to-Prolog query translation, discussing the state-preparation cost explicitly as a limitation [124].

The recurrent family is the sharpest point of the contrast. Amplitude encoding appears in exactly one recurrent study, a decomposed quantum LSTM over Chinese word embeddings [125], against the ten recurrent studies that use angle encoding, and the asymmetry is not accidental: re-preparing an arbitrary amplitude state at every step of a sequence is prohibitively expensive, whereas re-applying a rotation inside a cell is cheap. The encoding that is native to recurrent processing is therefore the opposite of the one that is native to overlap-based comparison. Read against the angle-encoding split, amplitude encoding partitions the same families by an opposite logic: angle encoding minimizes width and pays for it in classical projection, while amplitude encoding minimizes projection and pays for it in register width and, more importantly, in state-preparation depth. That last cost is the one most often abstracted away by simulator calls, so amplitude-encoded results are the ones whose reported qubit efficiency is most sensitive to whether the price of preparing the state has actually been counted.

C. SYNTACTIC/DISCOCAT ENCODING ACROSS ANSÄTZE

Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding cannot be split by model family the way the previous two families were, because all 29 of its studies belong to a single model family: compositional QNLP. This follows from the definition given earlier, since the grammatical reduction that wires the circuit is the model, so there is no separate architecture to vary. What does vary, and what plays the structural role model family played above, is the ansatz used to turn each grammatical box into gates, because that choice is the one genuine degree of freedom left once the parser has fixed the diagram. Two properties are shared across the whole subcorpus regardless of ansatz. First, the toolchain is a near-monoculture: 22 of the 29 studies build their circuits with lambeq, and most of the rest use the related DisCoPy/pytket stack, in contrast to the diverse PennyLane, Qiskit, and TorchQuantum backends seen for the vector-loading families. Second, qubit count is not a function of the ansatz: it is fixed by the diagram, growing with sentence length and the number of grammatical wire types regardless of which gate template is dropped onto each box. As shown in Table 4, which groups the studies by ansatz, the qubit column shows exactly this: the reported range is nearly identical in the IQP bucket and in the small named-alternative bucket, two to twenty-five against four to ten, because register width tracks the sentence, not the gate design.

The IQP ansatz is the family's workhorse and accounts for two-thirds of the subcorpus. It originates in the two "generic families" of ansätze proposed alongside the first NISQ demonstrations: a CNOT-and-$U(3)$ construction and an IQP construction of alternating Hadamard and controlled-phase layers [19]. The IQP variant was then formalized as a depth-d word-circuit template (arity-one words as a single Euler rotation, higher-arity words as d layers of Hadamard-plus-neighboring-controlled-R_z gates), motivated explicitly by IQP's conjectured classical hardness [20]. It was tuned further with a cheaper single-rotation option for low-arity words [18]. This is the construction that lambeq packages as its default `IQPAnsatz` class [126]. The great majority of application papers in the corpus adopt it unmodified, changing only what is fed into the diagram or read out of the circuit. Examples include video-caption classification [55]; multimodal captioning with a separate image encoder [127]; knowledge-graph relation modeling [128]; sentiment classification that keeps the same `IQPAnsatz` for its quantum runs while using a Spider tensor-network ansatz only as a classical simulation baseline [129]; Hindi sentiment classification [130]; and natural-language inference with tied parameters [131]. Further instances are optimizer benchmarking at fixed ansatz depth [132], [133]; an ensemble over five diagram-construction readers that all compile to the same IQP circuit [134]; and a hand-built IQP-equivalent circuit for pronoun resolution built from Fock-space projections [58], [135]. The construction also travels across languages and modalities: a direct translation of the same block structure to Chinese grammar [136], an English–Persian translation pipeline that Euler-decomposes noun rotations [137], and a musical-phrase model that applies the same Euler decomposition to snippet "words" [138]. The one recurring modification within this bucket is additive rather than structural, such as a dedicated negation gadget layered on top of an otherwise standard IQP circuit [54], which confirms that once fixed by the toolkit, the ansatz itself is treated as infrastructure rather than as a variable most studies think to manipulate.

A second, much smaller cluster treats the ansatz as the thing to redesign, and does so along one consistent axis: removing the noun from the pool of trainable gates. SimpleSA

TABLE 4. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding split by circuit ansatz in the final primary corpus.

Ansatz family	Studies	Median qubits (range)	Gate-level construction	Noun parameterization
IQP (LAMBEQ default)	19	7 (2–25)	Hadamard layers alternated with layers of parameterized controlled-R_z/CZ rotations, one block per grammatical reduction	Nouns are trainable rotations, same as other word types
Named alternative (SimpleSA, GeneralQC, DCA)	3	5 (4–10)	H–CNOT–R_z–H or H–CR_x/R_x–CNOT/R_x–CR_z blocks	Nouns fixed as identity gates or frozen embedding-derived states
Multi-ansatz benchmark (Sim14/15, StronglyEntangling, MPS/Spider/Tensor vs. IQP)	5	13 (7–20)	Same diagram compiled through several interchangeable circuit or tensor-network templates, compared head-to-head	Nouns trainable in every compared variant
ZX-calculus/underspecified	2	10 (single report)	Diagram or grammar tree compiled to a circuit via a generic, unlabeled routine; gate template not stated	Not reported

replaces the IQP block with an H–CNOT–R_z–H construction in which noun boxes are fixed identity gates rather than trainable unitaries, and reports higher accuracy than IQP with fewer parameters [59]. GeneralQC generalizes the idea to three concrete gate layouts: H-CR_x, R_x-CNOT, and R_x-CR_z. The two best-performing variants, R_x-CNOT and R_x-CR_z, are again the ones that leave nouns non-parameterized, reaching 96.91% accuracy against a 79.38% IQP baseline [53]. Parameter count does not track this pattern, however: both winning layouts use more trainable parameters than the IQP baseline (109 and 218 against 91), not fewer. The discrete circuit ansatz applies the same principle by a different mechanism, replacing the noun's trainable box with a fixed state derived from a classical word embedding through amplitude-style state preparation, and adding only a small trainable rotation keyed to the grammatical type, specifically to handle words the parser has never seen [139]. Across all three, the shared premise is that a word's syntactic role, not its lexical identity, is what needs to be learned. Freezing the noun consistently improves or preserves accuracy on the tasks reported. It also cuts parameter count in SimpleSA specifically, but GeneralQC's best layouts show this need not hold in general: a redesigned ansatz can spend more parameters elsewhere in the circuit while still gaining from non-parameterized nouns.

A third cluster asks the ansatz question directly, by fixing the diagram and swapping the gate template. The widest comparison pits lambeq's circuit ansätze, IQP, StronglyEntangling, Sim14, and Sim15, against its tensor-network ansätze, MPS, Spider, and plain Tensor, and finds Sim14 and Spider narrowly ahead of IQP among the circuit and tensor families respectively, with Sim15 essentially matching IQP and only StronglyEntangling clearly behind [4]. A second comparison of IQP against the Sim-et-al. "circuit 14/15" and StronglyEntangling ansätze finds the opposite depth dependence: StronglyEntangling is ahead at shallow depth, but IQP and Circuit14 converge faster and overtake it as circuit depth increases [140]. A related four-way comparison across six datasets gives IQP the best mean accuracy overall, while StrongEntangling wins on the hardest of them [57]. The same authors elsewhere present Sim14 and the Spider ansatz only as illustrative options, without running the comparison [141]. A narrower, non-lambeq comparison pits IQP against Sim14 directly on SQL circuits and finds Sim14 slightly more accurate but harder to train, concluding that IQP's simplicity is the better default for that task [142]. Read together, these head-to-head studies complicate rather than confirm the workhorse status IQP holds by default elsewhere in the corpus. IQP is competitive rather than dominant: a hardware-efficient or tensor-network alternative beats it on accuracy or convergence speed in most, though not all, of the papers that run the comparison. It is also the ansatz that pulls ahead as circuit depth grows in the one study that varies depth explicitly. Its dominance in the rest of the subcorpus therefore reflects toolkit convenience at least as much as a demonstrated performance advantage.

Two studies leave the gate template unspecified. One routes the diagram through ZX-calculus rewriting before compiling it to a circuit, but delegates the compilation to a generic diagram-to-circuit call without naming the resulting gates [60]; the only concrete claim recoverable from the paper is that ZX-simplification reduces the qubit count needed for a given sentence. The other builds a custom, non-lambeq pipeline and shows circuit diagrams with parameterized boxes at each atomic type, without labeling the gate template they instantiate [56]. Neither paper permits the ansatz to be classified beyond "some parameterized construction," which is itself informative: it marks the two studies in the subcorpus with the least methodological transparency about the one design choice this section is organized around.

Read together, the split shows that syntactic/DisCoCat encoding is more homogeneous at the ansatz level than at the application level: a single IQP-derived template, inherited from the family's foundational papers and packaged as lambeq's default, is adopted essentially unmodified by two-thirds of the subcorpus regardless of whether the downstream task is sentiment, translation, or music. The two genuine departures pull in different directions: one strips the ansatz down by freezing nouns to cut parameters, the other benchmarks it against hardware-efficient and tensor-network alternatives and repeatedly finds it beatable, and together they show that the field's default gate template is a convenience inherited from tooling rather than a demonstrated optimum. What the ansatz choice does not touch, in any of the four buckets, is qubit count, which stays governed by the grammar diagram itself [60], [142].

D. STRUCTURED FEATURE-MAP ENCODING ACROSS CONSTRUCTIONS

Structured feature-map encoding is the smallest of the four families addressed here, with nine studies, and it repeats the concentration seen for syntactic encoding: six of the nine are quantum-kernel methods, with only single instances in VQC, hybrid neural, and quantum-transformer models. Because model family again barely varies, the dimension that plays its role is the feature-map construction itself. That axis is natural for this family in any case. Unlike angle and amplitude encoding, which load feature values, a structured map builds feature interactions into the circuit through phase rotations and entangling gates; the choice of map is therefore a modeling assumption about which interactions matter. Two properties frame the split. Like angle encoding, the family depends on aggressive classical compression before the circuit: the high-dimensional text representation is reduced by PCA or a projection layer first. Unlike angle encoding, register width then tracks the number of retained features at roughly one qubit each. This is why the reported registers are comparatively wide, with a median of 10.5 qubits and a range of 5 to 20. As shown in Table 5, the studies are grouped by the map they use.

ZZ and IQP maps are the default construction, accounting for four of the nine studies. These are second-order maps that entangle pairs of features through data-dependent phase gates, and they are most at home in quantum kernels, where the encoded state defines the similarity geometry that the kernel measures: a ZZFeatureMap QSVM over a twenty-qubit register [61], an IQP feature map applied to reduced AraBERT embeddings [64], and IQP/ZZ maps feeding projected quantum kernels [67]. The same construction also appears once outside a kernel, as the primary quantum encoding layer of a hybrid model whose BERT/T5 embeddings are projected into a five-qubit ZZ map [62], which illustrates the family's borderline status: even its standard map is used both as a kernel definition and as a swappable layer inside a trainable network.

General Pauli maps, in three studies, are the more expressive and more experimental construction. These use higher-order or non-Z Pauli strings and treat the exact gate content as a design choice to be tuned. A question-answering VQC selects a specific $X/Y/ZZ$ combination after a small search [66]. A quantum-enhanced SVM adopts a Pauli-Y/YYY feature map with a rotation factor over fourteen qubits produced by PCA [65], alongside an earlier Pauli-map sentiment kernel [68]. This is exactly where the family's central risk becomes visible: because the map fixes which feature interactions are represented, performance depends on whether that hand-chosen structure happens to match the linguistic task, and the map is a strong assumption rather than a learned one. The remaining two studies report only an unnamed "structured feature map", one as a QSVM branch compared against a VQC [63] and one as a feature stage inside an aviation-text transformer [69], a reporting gap that makes them hard to place against the named constructions.

Taken together, structured feature maps are the most-benchmarked yet least-dominant of the established families. Because the map is usually presented as one candidate encoding among several, the studies that use it tend to compare it directly with the vector-loading families. Those comparisons do not favor it: the group behind the Pauli-Y kernel above later reports, in the controlled study cited in the angle-encoding analysis, that a simple R_y angle map outperforms a Pauli feature map under matched circuits [23]. The concentration in kernels is therefore the coherent core of the family, the one setting where the map is the model rather than a replaceable layer, while the scattered VQC, hybrid, and transformer instances are experiments in borrowing a designed geometry into a trainable pipeline. This leaves the family with a narrow but principled niche, testing whether an engineered similarity space helps for text, subject to a double dependency the other families do not share: its usefulness rests on both the feature-map design and the compression stage that precedes it.

E. EMERGING FAMILIES

The residual group of eight studies comprises the three emerging families of the taxonomy, and unlike the four major families it cannot be split by model family for a different reason: it is already almost mono-cultural in architecture. Seven of the eight studies are variational or recurrent circuits, with a single hybrid-neural case and no kernel, compositional, or transformer instances at all. What varies, and what organizes this subsection, is the specialized mechanism itself, because each one is best understood as a targeted patch for a specific limitation of the mainstream encodings analyzed above rather than as a general-purpose alternative to them. As shown in Table 6, the studies are grouped by mechanism, naming the trade each one makes.

Data re-uploading, introduced in Section IV-E, is best read as the response to the width problem that constrains angle and amplitude encoding: re-injecting the same feature stream across circuit depth, rather than loading it once, lets a small register carry more information than a single loading step would allow. Its four studies span a six-to-eighteen-qubit range, wider than angle encoding's fixed small band but nowhere near amplitude encoding's $\log_2$-scale registers, because here the burden is shifted into depth rather than width.

Hybrid embedding is the response to the high-dimensionality problem, and by the same logic it carries the smallest registers in the emerging group, a median of six qubits (Section IV-E): a classical encoder absorbs the heavy compression before a small quantum layer ever sees the result. This is the same attribution problem already flagged for hybrid-neural angle encoding (Section V-A), taken to its limit: because the classical encoder does most of the representational work, the independent contribution of the quantum tail is the hardest of any interface to isolate.

Hamiltonian and observable encoding, the single study covered in Section IV-E, is the response to the state-

TABLE 5. Structured feature-map encoding split by map construction in the final primary corpus.

Map construction	Studies	Median qubits (range)	Interactions encoded	Host families and role
ZZ / IQP maps	4	10 (5–20)	Pairwise, second-order feature products via entangling phase gates	Mostly kernel geometry; one hybrid encoding layer
General Pauli maps	3	11 (6–14)	Higher-order and non-Z Pauli-string interactions	Kernel and VQC; gate combination chosen by search
Unnamed structured maps	2	not reported	Unspecified feature interactions	QSVM branch; transformer feature stage

TABLE 6. Emerging encoding families split by mechanism in the final primary corpus.

Mechanism	Studies	Median qubits (range)	Core mechanism	Host families and trade
Data re-uploading	4	7 (6–18)	Same features re-injected across circuit depth, alternating with trainable gates	VQC, recurrent; trades qubit width for depth
Hybrid embedding	3	6 (4–8)	A classical encoder emits a compact latent vector consumed by a quantum layer	VQC, hybrid; trades quantum role for classical preprocessing
Hamiltonian/observable	1	9	Data mapped to Pauli-string Hamiltonians or observables, with no state preparation	VQC; trades state encoding for observable encoding

preparation problem that undermines amplitude encoding's qubit savings (Section V-B): it reads text-derived information out through observables rather than preparing a state at all, sidestepping state preparation entirely while keeping a logarithmic, nine-qubit budget. With only one study, it remains an idea rather than an established interface.

Taken together, the emerging families confirm the reading of the major families from the outside in: each is defined by the mainstream limitation it tries to escape, data re-uploading trading width for depth, hybrid embedding trading quantum responsibility for classical preprocessing, and Hamiltonian encoding trading state preparation for observables. Their shared confinement to variational and recurrent circuits shows that this experimentation is happening entirely within the trainable-circuit world, not in the kernel or compositional families whose encodings are structurally fixed. The evidence, however, is thinner and less comparable than for any established family: these studies differ in encoding and in where the quantum component sits and how much work precedes it. The natural questions (whether depth is worth reduced width, whether the quantum layer adds value beyond the classical encoder, and whether observable encoding beats state preparation) remain open on the current corpus.

VI. TEMPORAL EVOLUTION OF ENCODING AND MODEL CHOICES

Every family and mechanism examined so far has been analyzed as a cross-section of the corpus, encoding against model family, encoding against ansatz, at a single frozen point. This section reintroduces the one dimension held constant throughout, publication year, and asks how large the field has grown and why its composition changed as it grew, drawing on the mechanisms already identified in Sections IV and V to interpret the trend rather than merely report it. The final corpus spans six publication years, from two studies in 2021 to a peak of 41 in 2025. The last calendar year is included at 27 studies but was not complete at the time of writing, since the search preceded the year's close. Any apparent 2026 decline is therefore a search-cutoff artifact rather than a documented contraction, and it is treated as such throughout.

A. GROWTH AND THE CHANGING ENCODING MIX

Figure 3 decomposes the field's fivefold growth by encoding family, and the shape of that growth points to a specific mechanism rather than to uniform diversification. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding, the only family represented in 2021, accounted for its entire output that year and still half of it in 2022, but its share falls monotonically after that, to 38% in 2023, 19% in 2024, and 11% by 2026, even while its absolute count stays roughly flat at three to eight studies a year. Angle and amplitude encoding absorb almost all of the volume that arrives after 2023. Angle rises from a quarter to roughly half of the yearly corpus. Amplitude, after an early spike to a quarter of the small 2022 corpus and a near-total drop to under 5% in 2023, settles into a stable quarter to third of every year from 2024 onward.

The most plausible driver of this split is a difference in barrier to entry rather than in explanatory adequacy. This is the review's own interpretation of the shift, offered because the corpus-wide counts support it structurally; no paper in the corpus frames its encoding choice explicitly in these terms, so the mechanism should be read as an inference from the aggregate pattern, not a documented finding. A DisCoCat study requires committing to a grammar formalism, a parser capable of producing pregroup or CCG derivations, and the narrow lambeq/DisCoPy toolchain that Section V-C showed also constrains the ansatz. The payoff is a linguistically interpretable wiring, but the cost is paid again on every new sentence, language, or domain. This is why the same section found the family's practicality to fall away the further the input drifts from a short, curated English sentence. Angle and amplitude encoding impose no comparable commitment: either accepts any fixed-length numeric vector. Once general-purpose pretrained text embeddings became a routine input, available to a researcher with no linguistic-formalism background at all, the marginal cost of a new study dropped to whatever off-the-shelf VQC or kernel recipe was already

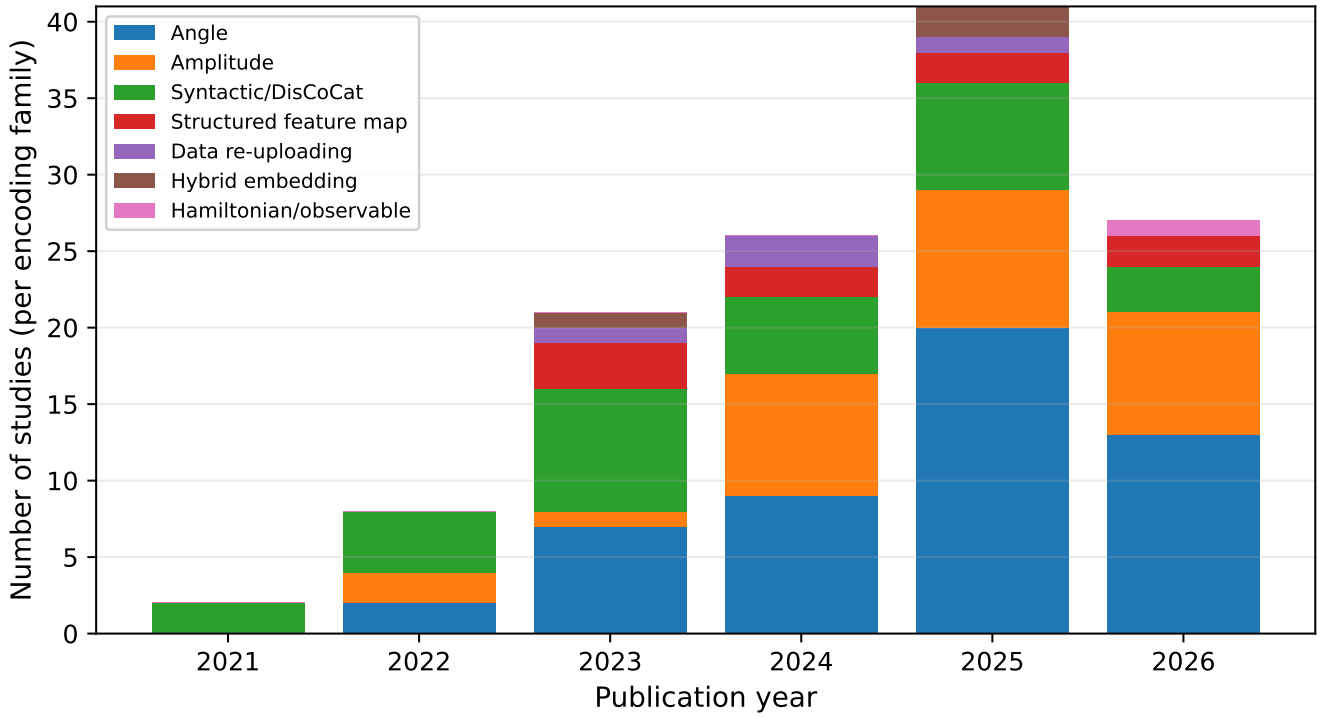


FIGURE 3. Encoding family by publication year in the final primary corpus (2026 is a partial year at the time of the search).

circulating in the broader quantum-machine-learning literature. Section V-B located that shift concretely: every VQC-hosted amplitude study from 2024 onward runs on dense transformer embeddings, and 2024 is the year amplitude's yearly share stabilizes in Figure 3. The remaining families fit the same account from the other side. Structured feature-map encoding stays in the single digits every year, apart from a one-off spike to 14% in 2023, and otherwise never moves far from three to eight percent. The three emerging families (data re-uploading, hybrid embedding, and Hamiltonian/observable encoding) together never exceed one-tenth of any year's output. Each still demands bespoke, non-templated engineering (a decomposed recurrent layer, a co-designed classical encoder, a custom observable construction) that scales with the number of researchers willing to do that engineering rather than with the size of the field, so their share cannot expand the way a copy-paste encoding's can. The field's growth, in short, has followed the path of least engineering resistance: the encodings that ask the least of a newcomer, not the ones judged most linguistically or computationally motivated in Section IV.

B. FROM COMPOSITIONAL MONOCULTURE TO ARCHITECTURAL PLURALISM

Figure 4 tells the same story from the architecture side, and because compositional QNLP and syntactic encoding are the same 29 studies (Section V-C), its decline is not a second, independent observation but the identical erosion seen from a different axis: compositional models are the entire 2021 corpus, half of 2022, and down to 11% by 2026. What replaces that share, however, is not one architecture but four, and the shape of the replacement is again best explained by portability rather than by a documented technical advantage. VQCs, the largest beneficiary, grow from an eighth of the 2022 corpus to about a third by 2025 and just under half by 2026. A VQC is not a QNLP-specific construction; Section V established it as the default host for both angle and amplitude encoding precisely because it asks nothing of the input beyond a numeric vector. Its rise is the model-family expression of the same embedding-commoditization pattern identified above. Quantum transformers and quantum kernels, by contrast, hold a steady, unspectacular seven-to-fifteen percent share from 2022 onward, with quantum kernels dipping just under that band to 7.4% in the partial 2026 count. Both require a deliberately quantum-native design decision (a state-overlap readout for kernels, an attention-like circuit structure for transformers) that cannot simply be copied from a generic VQC recipe. Their growth therefore tracks the smaller, slower-growing population of studies willing to make that architectural commitment rather than the field's overall volume.

Hybrid neural models are the one genuine outlier: negligible through 2024, then 27% of the 2025 corpus, the single largest jump of any family in any year, before falling back to 4% in the partial 2026 count. Because 2026 is incomplete, the fall cannot yet be read as a reversal. The 2025 spike

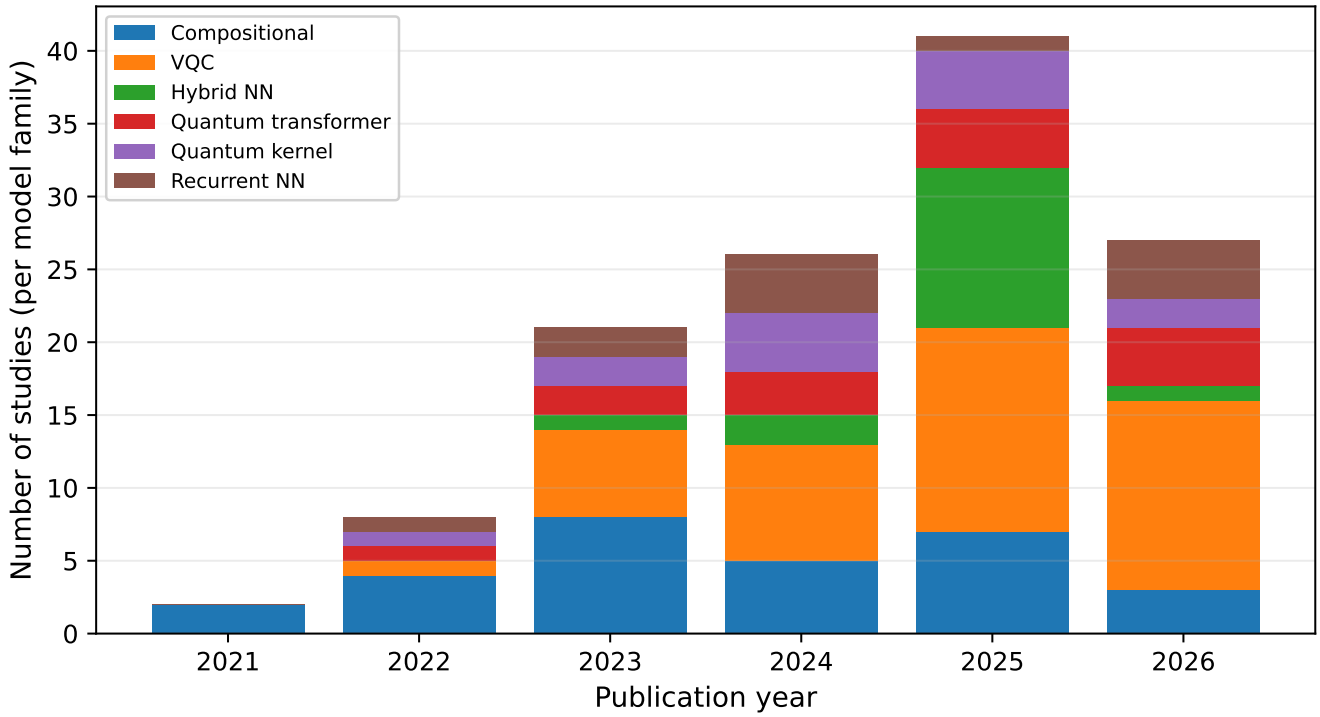


FIGURE 4. Model family by publication year in the final primary corpus (2026 is a partial year at the time of the search).

itself is real, and it is consistent with the same low-barrier mechanism taken one step further. A hybrid neural model, by construction, puts most of the representational burden on a pretrained classical encoder and reserves only a small quantum submodule; it is the architecture that asks the least genuinely quantum design work of any family in the corpus. It is also the family Section V-E flagged as hardest to attribute to the quantum component, since the classical encoder does most of the work. Read together, the two observations support the explanation already offered for the encoding-level trend: the field's fastest-growing segments are consistently those with the lowest entry cost for a researcher bringing a pretrained classical model and a small amount of quantum machinery, not those built around a bespoke quantum-native design.

VII. TASK-LEVEL FIT BETWEEN ENCODING AND MODEL FAMILY

The preceding sections asked which encoding a study uses and when; this one asks whether the choice ever tracks the task itself. Is there a task family whose structure gives a principled reason to prefer one encoding over another, and does the corpus show the field acting on such a reason? The question is posed structurally, in terms of what an encoding computes, rather than through reported results. The reason for that choice is set out at the end of the section: the corpus provides no basis on which the performance figures of two studies can be compared.

Figure 5 sets the stage: sentiment and other text classification together absorb the bulk of the corpus and every encoding family with any following at all, so before asking whether encoding tracks task it is worth asking whether these two task families can answer the question. They cannot. The encoding mix inside each is essentially the corpus-wide mix: angle encoding takes 21 of the 47 sentiment studies and 21 of the 53 other-classification studies, amplitude 11 and 9, and syntactic 8 and 13, so no family's share within either task departs from its corpus-wide share by more than about six percentage points. Nothing here suggests that classification selects for an encoding. This is not surprising in hindsight: encoding choice inside these two task families tracks the corpus-wide habits documented in Sections V and VI, mostly which toolchain and which pretrained embedding a group already had on hand, rather than anything about sentiment or topic classification specifically. Because dozens of unrelated research groups are all applying broadly interchangeable recipes to broadly interchangeable binary and multi-class labeling problems, classification is where the corpus has the most data and the least power to say anything about task-encoding fit.

Similarity and disambiguation is the one task family where a real, mechanistically grounded pattern emerges. Amplitude encoding accounts for six of the family's thirteen studies, roughly double its share of the corpus overall, although on thirteen studies that enrichment is suggestive rather than established (Fisher's exact test, odds ratio 3.5, $p = 0.07$).

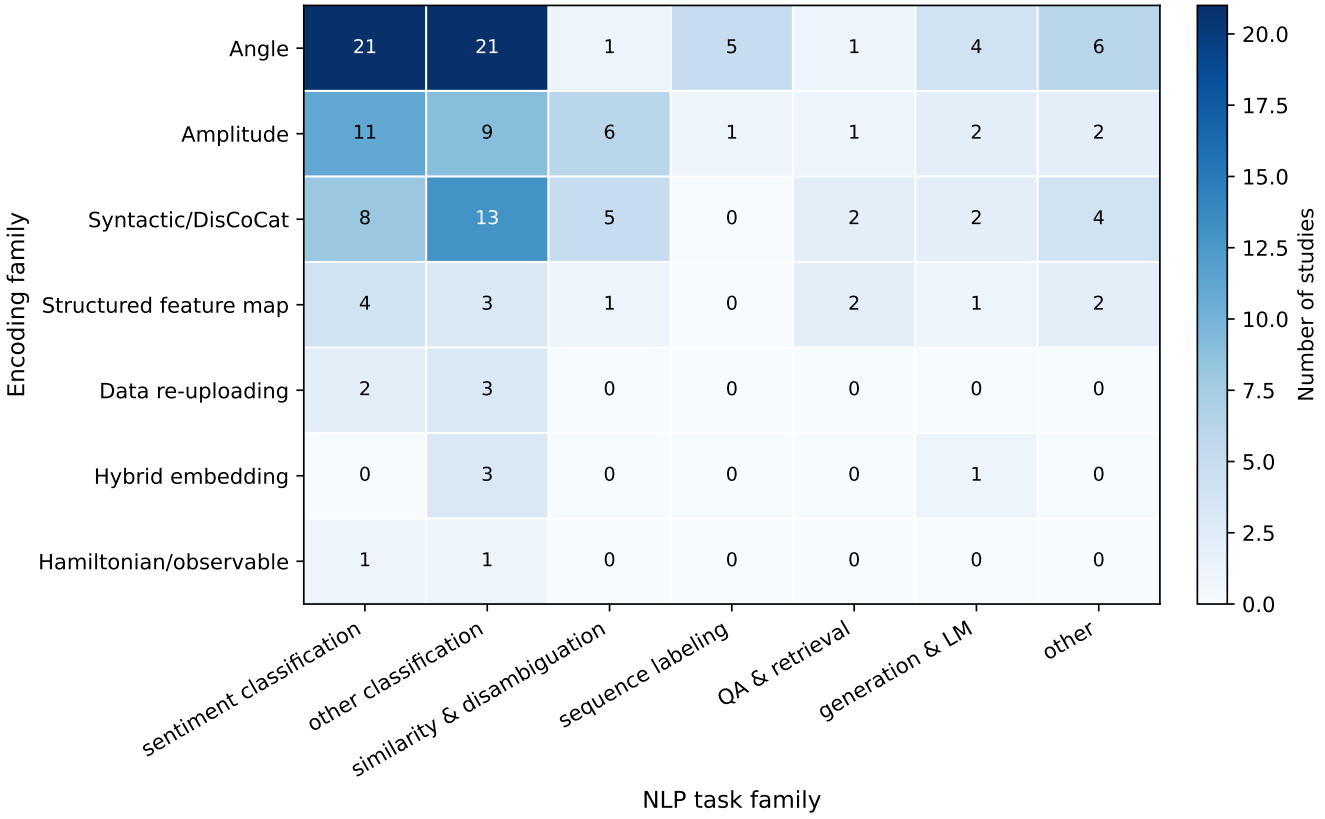


FIGURE 5. Encoding family by NLP task family in the final primary corpus. A study evaluating several task families is counted once in each.

The mechanism, not the count, is what carries the argument here, and Section V-B already established it: an amplitude-encoded state's inner product literally is a cosine similarity, so a SWAP test or overlap measurement performs the task's core computation rather than merely feeding a downstream classifier. The same mechanism explains why three of those six sit in the quantum-kernel model family [45], [51], [115]: a kernel method is little more than a trained readout wrapped around exactly that overlap. What the fit delivers, however, is feasibility rather than superiority, and those three studies say so themselves. Their stated contribution is that the encoded state reproduces classical embedding similarity with minimal loss at logarithmic qubit cost, which is precisely what the mechanism predicts: an amplitude state loads the classical geometry it is given, so an overlap readout can reproduce a classical cosine similarity faithfully but has no channel through which to improve on it. The structural fit is real, and this is the one place in the corpus where the encoding provably does the work the task needs, but what it buys is efficiency rather than a better answer. It is telling that the field arrived at this fit by mathematical necessity rather than by systematic search: no study set out to compare encodings on similarity tasks and reached the conclusion. It falls out of what amplitude encoding is.

Relational tasks (question answering and, to a lesser extent, similarity itself) show a weaker echo of the same logic on the compositional side, but here the corpus is too thin to test anything. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding takes two of the six question-answering and retrieval studies and five of the thirteen similarity and disambiguation studies, which is at least consistent with the intuition that grammatical structure should matter most when a task is explicitly about how words or entities relate; on those denominators, however, the departure from the family's corpus-wide share is not evidence of anything (Fisher's exact test on the QA cell, $p = 0.62$). The structural argument is in any case in tension with the practical constraint documented in Section V-C: the family's practicality erodes precisely as a task departs from a short, curated sentence, and relational tasks are exactly where compositional structure is best motivated and exactly where the grammar-to-circuit pipeline is under the most strain. Which of the two effects dominates is not something six studies can settle.

Sequence labeling, question answering, and generation or language modeling are each covered by only six to ten studies, too few to support a claim either way, but they fail differently. Sequence labeling is almost entirely angle-encoded, five of its six studies, so there is nothing to compare: one encoding occupies the cell rather than competing against alternatives inside it. Question answering and generation, by

contrast, are spread thinly across several encodings, but each individual pairing is one or two papers from a single research thread rather than a pattern a second, independent group has reproduced. Neither failure mode supports a task-encoding claim, but for opposite reasons: one cell has no variation to explain, the others have too little replication to trust.

This section's central finding is therefore a methodological one, and it is what licenses the structural reading used throughout rather than a performance-based one. The corpus cannot be pooled on results. Each study selects its own dataset, its own classical comparison, and its own evaluation protocol: 141 distinct datasets are named across the 125 studies and 122 of them are used by exactly one paper (Section VIII-D), the classical systems compared against are very nearly unique to each paper, and 15 studies report no classical baseline at all (Table 8). A reported accuracy figure in this corpus is thus a statement about one pipeline, on one dataset, against one baseline; the difference between two such figures is not attributable to the encoding that distinguishes them. This is why the one task–encoding fit the corpus does support has to be argued from mechanism rather than measured from results, and why even that fit resolves into efficiency rather than superiority. Determining whether an encoding does better on a task, rather than merely fitting it, requires the shared benchmarks called for in Section IX-E.

VIII. EXPERIMENTAL RIGOR: SIMULATION, HARDWARE, AND REPRODUCIBILITY

The preceding sections asked what is encoded and by which model; this section asks how seriously the corpus tests any of it. Every primary study was coded for its execution regime, exact noiseless statevector simulation, simulation under an explicit noise model, execution on real quantum hardware, or a mixed protocol combining simulation with a hardware run, together with the specific framework and backend used, whether code was released, and whether scalability was discussed. These fields describe the experimental apparatus underneath the encoding and model-family results of Sections V–VII and support a question those sections cannot answer: not which encoding is used, but how much evidence backs the claim that it works.

A. EXECUTION REGIMES ACROSS THE CORPUS

Noiseless statevector simulation dominates: 95 of 125 studies (76.0%) report exact simulation only. A further 14 (11.2%) simulate under an explicit noise model, typically depolarizing or readout error injected into a density-matrix simulator, and 14 (11.2%) report a mixed protocol that pairs simulation with a validation run on real hardware. Only two studies (1.6%) run exclusively on real hardware with no simulated baseline reported: a quantum-kernel KNN classifier executed on IBM Quantum Experience [46] and a quantum self-attention model executed on the 72-qubit Wukong superconducting processor using a 28-qubit register [101]. Combining the mixed and hardware-only categories, 16 studies (12.8%) touch real hardware in some capacity; this measure is referred to below as hardware-touched. Widening it to any engagement with noise (a noisy simulation, a mixed protocol, or a hardware-only run) raises the count to 30 studies (24.0%), referred to below as noise-or-hardware engagement; the remaining three-quarters of the corpus never leaves a noiseless simulator.

TABLE 7. Execution regime by encoding family in the final primary corpus. "HW-touched" sums the mixed and real-hardware columns.

Encoding family	Noiseless	Noisy sim	Mixed	HW-only	HW-touched
Angle	42	6	2	1	3
Amplitude	23	2	2	1	3
Syntactic/DisCoCat	19	4	6	0	6
Structured feature map	5	1	3	0	3
Data re-uploading	2	1	1	0	1
Hybrid embedding	3	0	0	0	0
Hamiltonian/observable	1	0	0	0	0

Table 7 crosses execution regime with the taxonomy of Section IV. Read as a whole, the table does not establish that the two dimensions are associated ($\chi^2 = 15.4$, $\mathrm{dof} = 18$, Monte Carlo $p = 0.52$), which is unsurprising when four of the seven families contribute fewer than ten studies each. The per-family percentages that follow are therefore description rather than demonstrated difference; the one contrast that does survive a test is stated at the end of this paragraph. Descriptively, hardware engagement concentrates in exactly the families that Section V already identified as small and toolchain-bound. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding is validated on real devices more often than the corpus average: 20.7% of its studies are hardware-touched against the corpus-wide 12.8%, and 34.5% engage noise or hardware against the corpus-wide 24.0%. Two properties explain this: the lambeq/DisCoPy/pytket stack that dominates the family (Section V-C) ships with direct IBM Quantum integration, and the shallow, few-qubit circuits a short sentence produces are cheap enough to queue on real devices. Reported backends include `ibmq_bogota` [18]; `ibmq_montreal` and `ibmq_toronto` [20]; `ibm_lagos`, `ibm_oslo`, and `ibm_nairobi` [57]; and the Quantinuum trapped-ion device [138]. Structured feature maps show the highest hardware-touched share of all (33.3%), and data re-uploading the highest noise-or-hardware share (50.0%), but on denominators of nine and four studies respectively, so these percentages describe between one and four papers each rather than a stable pattern; the corpus is too thin here to call the concentration a trend. Angle and amplitude encoding, which together account for 79 of the 125 studies and for almost every VQC- and recurrent-model result discussed in Section V-A and Section V-B, sit at the bottom of the table: barely one study in thirteen is hardware-touched (6 of 79), and fewer than one in five engages noise in any form (14 of 79). This is the contrast that holds up on its own terms. Angle- and amplitude-encoded studies are hardware-touched at a materially lower rate than the rest of the corpus (6 of 79 against 10 of 46; Fisher's exact test, odds ratio 0.30, $p = 0.03$), and the same holds, more weakly, for engagement with noise in any form (14 of 79 against 16 of 46; odds ratio

0.40, $p = 0.05$). This means the two encodings that carry the field's growth (Section VI-A) are also the two for which almost all reported accuracy numbers are simulator artifacts, since a noiseless statevector simulation, unlike a hardware run or even a calibrated noisy simulation, is silent on whether the same circuit would survive decoherence, gate error, or readout noise on an actual device.

Hybrid embedding and Hamiltonian/observable encoding report no hardware or noisy-simulation validation whatsoever: every one of these studies is exact-simulation only. For Hamiltonian encoding this is a single study, so no pattern can be claimed, but it does mean the family's central promise, that observable-based readout sidesteps the state-preparation cost that undermines amplitude encoding (Section V-E), has not yet been tested under any of the conditions, noise or hardware, that would actually stress that claim.

B. EXECUTION BY MODEL FAMILY AND THE RECURRENT-NETWORK BLIND SPOT

The same asymmetry appears when execution is crossed with model family instead of encoding. Quantum kernels are the most hardware-engaged family (5 of 13 studies, 38.5%, engage noise or hardware, and 4 of 13, 30.8%, are hardware-touched, the highest share on both measures), consistent with their concentration in amplitude and structured-feature-map encoding (Section V-B); compositional models follow at 34.5%, the same figure as syntactic encoding, since the two categories are the same 29 studies (Section V-C). VQCs, hybrid-neural models, and quantum transformers cluster around 19–26% hardware or noisy-simulation engagement. Recurrent quantum models are the one family with zero: all 12 recurrent-network studies in the corpus (QLSTM, QRNN, and related sequential architectures) report noiseless simulation only, with no noisy-simulation or hardware run reported for any of them. This is worth flagging on its own terms, independent of the encoding-level pattern in Section VIII-A, because a recurrent quantum cell re-applies its encoding and ansatz once per token (Section V-A), so circuit depth, and with it the exposure to decoherence and gate error, scales with sequence length in a way that a single-shot VQC does not. The recurrent family is therefore the one whose central architectural claim, that a small register can be reused cheaply across a sequence, is also the one for which noise robustness has been tested least, not most.

C. THE HARDWARE-VALIDATION TIMELINE IS FLATTENING, NOT GROWING

Section VI-A showed that the corpus grew roughly twenty-fold in raw study count between 2021 and 2025. The hardware-touched share (mixed and real-hardware execution combined) does not grow with it. It rises from 0% in 2021 to 37.5% in 2022 (3 of 8 studies) and stays in the 14–31% range through 2024 (14.3% in 2023, 30.8% in 2024, the latter also the only year with hardware-only studies), then falls to 2.4% in 2025 (1 of 41 studies) and 3.7% in 2026 (1 of 27, partial year). Noisy-simulation share does not follow the same collapse: it holds at 14–15% in 2023, 2025, and 2026, dipping only in 2024 (3.8%), so the late-period loss is specific to real-device runs. Pooling the window into an earlier and a later period puts a figure on that loss: 14 of the 57 studies published from 2021 to 2024 are hardware-touched, against 2 of the 68 published in 2025–2026 (Fisher's exact test, odds ratio 10.7, $p = 0.0003$). The matching contrast for noise-or-hardware engagement is not significant (18 of 57 against 12 of 68, $p = 0.09$), which is the same asymmetry the yearly figures show from the other side: what fell away is real-device execution, not noise modeling. Read together, the two most recent full or near-full years in the corpus, 2025 and 2026, show the lowest combined rate of hardware or noise engagement of any period after 2021, at the exact moment the field's yearly output peaked. This is the experimental-rigor counterpart to the mechanism Section VI-A proposed for the encoding mix. If the field's growth ran through the encodings and model families that asked the least of a newcomer (VQCs and hybrid-neural models consuming pretrained embeddings rather than DisCoCat's grammar pipeline), then it plausibly also ran through the experimental protocol that asks the least: a local noiseless simulator call rather than a queued, rate-limited hardware job or a calibrated noise model. The timeline admits two exceptions, one per year. The 2025 neural-quantum-embedding study validates its ZZ-feature-map pipeline on the IBM Yonsei backend alongside simulation [62], and the 2026 quantum-secure federated-learning study fine-tunes a hybrid classical–quantum sentiment model on a four-client quantum network and validates it on the 156-qubit BAQIS Quafu cloud backend, alongside large-scale classical simulation for scalability [143]. These are the corpus's only 2025–2026 hardware-touched NLP studies. Notably, the latter is motivated by a quantum-communication security goal rather than an NLP-performance claim, so it reads less as a counter-trend than as a study that reached hardware for reasons orthogonal to the pattern above.

D. FRAMEWORK FRAGMENTATION AND THE REPRODUCIBILITY GAP

Even where a study stays in simulation, the tooling underneath it is far from standardized. Across the corpus, 34 of 125 studies (27.2%) do not report the simulation framework at all. This is the single largest category, larger than any one named framework. Among studies that do report one, PennyLane is the most common (21 as sole framework, plus another dozen or so in combination with Qiskit, PyTorch, or a hardware backend), Qiskit is second (9 sole, plus combinations), and lambeq anchors the syntactic/DisCoCat subcorpus as documented in Section V-C. The remaining reported configurations are almost all unique to a single paper: TensorCircuit with IBM-calibration-derived depolarizing noise [108], Amazon Braket Hybrid Jobs, Qulacs, TensorFlow Quantum, Flax. Outside the lambeq cluster and a PennyLane/Qiskit core, no two studies run directly comparable software stacks. This fragmentation compounds a second gap: only 25 of 125 studies (20.0%) report publicly available code. Between the

TABLE 8. Distribution of the framework's categorical dimensions over the final primary corpus ($n = 125$). All counts are computed directly from the extraction sheet.

Dimension	Value	n	%
Execution regime	noiseless simulation	95	76.0
	noisy simulation	14	11.2
	mixed (sim. + hardware)	14	11.2
	real hardware only	2	1.6
Qubit scaling tested	no	102	81.6
	yes	23	18.4
Scalability discussed	yes	91	72.8
	no	34	27.2
Classical baseline	yes	110	88.0
	no	15	12.0
Code available	no	100	80.0
	yes	25	20.0

missing-framework rate and the missing-code rate (plausibly overlapping but not identical sets), a substantial fraction of the corpus cannot be independently re-run even in simulation, let alone re-validated on hardware.

Scalability discussion, by contrast, fares better on paper: 91 studies (72.8%) are coded as discussing scalability against 34 that do not. But this field, like the per-study evaluation protocols examined in Section VII, is self-reported by each paper against whatever standard its own authors chose. A scalability discussion here can range from a formal resource analysis to a single sentence noting that larger qubit counts are future work. Taken together with the noiseless-simulation dominance of Section VIII-A, the corpus's reporting practice leaves it unclear whether any encoding surveyed in Section IV would still work outside a simulator at a larger register size. This is the caution Section IV-B raised for amplitude encoding's hidden state-preparation cost, now shown to generalize across the corpus rather than being specific to one family.

IX. TRENDS AND OPEN CHALLENGES

The preceding sections examined the corpus from five angles in turn: what is encoded (Section IV), how the same encoding is repurposed across model families (Section V), how the field's composition changed over time (Section VI), whether the choice ever tracks the task (Section VII), and how much experimental evidence actually backs any of it (Section VIII). This section pulls those five threads together into a single account of where the field is heading, states plainly what the encoding bottleneck named in the abstract actually is, and converts the gaps documented above into a concrete agenda for future work.

A. WHERE THE FIELD IS HEADING

Table 8 fixes the quantitative baseline: for each categorical dimension of the comparison framework (Section III-F), it reports the distribution over the full corpus of 125 studies.

Three trends, each established individually above, describe a single underlying movement when read together. The field is consolidating around the encodings that make the fewest demands on a newcomer, angle and amplitude encoding, at the expense of the grammar-dependent syntactic/DisCoCat tradition (Sections VI-A–VI-B). That consolidation is landing on simulators, not on quantum hardware: 2025 and 2026, the years in which the corpus grew fastest, are also the years with the lowest combined rate of hardware or noisy-simulation engagement of the entire six-year window (Section VIII-C). And the corpus's one mechanistically grounded task–encoding fit (amplitude encoding on similarity and disambiguation tasks, where the encoded state's inner product literally performs the task's core computation) remains small, concentrated in a single task family and model family, arrived at by mathematical necessity rather than by systematic search, and presented by its own studies as faithful reproduction of classical similarity at logarithmic qubit cost (Section VII). Put together, these are not three independent observations: the field's growth curve and its evidentiary curve are decoupling. Publication volume is rising fastest in exactly the segment (simulator-only VQC and hybrid-neural pipelines built on commodity embeddings) that is least equipped to demonstrate anything about noise, hardware behavior, or a genuine quantum contribution. The segment with the clearest structural argument for a quantum-native contribution remains a small, slow-growing niche.

B. THE ENCODING BOTTLENECK

Every family reviewed in Sections IV and V is, underneath its individual mechanism, a different response to the same arithmetic. Let d denote the dimensionality of the text representation a study starts from: in this corpus, from a handful of TF-IDF or handcrafted features up to the 768 or more dimensions of a transformer embedding. Let q denote the near-term qubit budget a study actually uses: empirically, two to sixteen qubits across the angle and amplitude subcorpora (Tables 2 and 3). Angle encoding spends one rotation on each retained feature, so the register has to be about as wide as the number of features that survive a classical reduction step applied before the circuit is built, and is narrower only in the denser variants of Section IV-A, which stack several rotations on one qubit and pay for the saving in loading depth. Writing $d' \leq d$ for that surviving count, the mismatch between d and q is resolved by discarding information: the quantum circuit only ever sees the d'-dimensional remainder. Amplitude encoding instead packs the full vector into $q = \lceil \log_2 d \rceil$ qubits, so the register grows logarithmically rather than linearly with d. But preparing an arbitrary 2^q-dimensional amplitude vector generically requires a state-preparation circuit whose gate count scales with d rather than with q [144], [145] (Section IV-B). Here the mismatch is resolved by paying in circuit depth rather than in discarded information: a cost that Section V-B showed is routinely absorbed into a simulator call and left out of the reported qubit budget. Structured feature maps and data re-uploading sit between these two extremes, trading some width for some depth without eliminating either cost (Sections IV-D and V-E). Hybrid embedding relocates the mismatch upstream into a classical encoder rather than resolving it. Syntactic/DisCoCat encoding is the one family that sidesteps the arithmetic rather than trading inside it: q

is set by the grammatical structure of the sentence, not by the dimensionality of an embedding (Section IV-C). This is why Section IV treats it as categorically different from the other five families, and why it is the one encoding whose qubit count Section V-C found untouched by ansatz choice.

This is the encoding bottleneck named in the abstract: a persistent gap between d, set by what classical NLP representations require to be informative, and q, set by what near-term hardware can support. Every non-syntactic encoding family in the corpus is best understood as a choice of which cost absorbs the gap (lost information, added depth, or a relocated classical burden) rather than a choice that closes the gap. No study in the corpus reports an encoding that grows the effective qubit budget without incurring one of these three costs. In this sense the bottleneck is structural, not a matter of engineering effort within any single family.

C. THE RIGOR GAP: WHAT GROWTH HAS NOT SOLVED

Section VIII documented these gaps individually, execution regime, framework and code disclosure; read together, they describe a field whose reporting practice has not kept pace with its output, and the shortfall is not evenly spread: it concentrates in angle and amplitude encoding, the same two families Section VI-A identified as carrying the field's growth (Section VIII-A). Underneath all of this sits the finding of Section VII: each paper evaluates against whatever classical baseline, dataset, and protocol its own authors chose, so results cannot be pooled across studies at all. A reported figure therefore carries little evidential weight beyond the single pipeline that produced it; indeed, the one task–encoding pairing backed by an independent structural reason (amplitude encoding on similarity tasks) turns out on inspection to reproduce classical similarity rather than to improve on it (Section VII). None of these gaps is specific to one encoding family or one model family; they are properties of how the field as a whole reports its experiments, which is why closing them is a precondition for the task-encoding fit questions raised in Section VII to be answered with any confidence beyond the structural-fit case the current corpus documents.

D. OPEN CHALLENGES

The gaps documented throughout the review reduce to five open challenges, each derived from the corpus itself rather than imported from general quantum-computing commentary. For each, the challenge is stated along with why it remains open; the corpus evidence for all five is summarized, as shown in Table 9.

C1) The encoding bottleneck and the information it costs. State-preparation and compression costs dominate any downstream benefit, and outside the syntactic family the reduction stage discards most of the representation before the circuit ever sees it, 768-dimensional embeddings reduced to ten [36], four [37], or two [79] features. This is the same d-versus-q mismatch set out in Section IX-B. The corpus's mitigations (divide-and-conquer preparation [49], observable encoding [77], depth-for-width trades [72]) trade which cost is paid without closing the gap, and no surveyed study quantifies what the reduction removes. Open because no surveyed encoding grows the effective qubit budget without paying in discarded information, added depth, or a relocated classical burden.

C2) Incommensurable evaluation. Each study chooses its own dataset, its own classical comparison, and its own evaluation protocol, so no two results in the corpus are directly comparable. Fifteen studies report no classical baseline whatsoever, and among those that do, the compared classical system is very nearly unique to each paper. Even the one task–encoding pairing backed by a structural reason, amplitude encoding on similarity tasks, is presented by its own studies as faithful reproduction of classical similarity rather than an improvement on it [45], [51]. Open because no shared benchmark with fixed classical baselines exists against which results from different studies could be made commensurable.

C3) The simulation–hardware gap. Hardware and noisy-simulation engagement peaked in 2022–2024 and fell to its lowest levels of the entire window in the very years the corpus grew fastest (Section VIII-C), with [62], [143] the only 2025–2026 hardware-validated studies, the latter reaching hardware for reasons orthogonal to an NLP-performance claim. Open because noiseless simulation is silent on decoherence, gate error, and readout noise, precisely the properties that decide near-term viability.

C4) Absent scaling evidence. Evidence: 102 of 125 studies evaluate a single register width; only 23 test more than one, and systematic sweeps such as the 1–16-qubit comparison of [49] are rare. Open because every resource argument in Section IX-B is asymptotic while the evidence is single-point.

C5) Reproducibility and benchmark triviality. Evidence: 100 studies (80.0%) release no code and 34 (27.2%) do not name their simulation framework (Section VIII-D); of 141 distinct datasets named across the corpus, 122 are used by exactly one paper and only 7 recur in four or more. The handful that do recur are either generic sentiment benchmarks carrying no QNLP-specific signal (IMDb, 12 papers; Amazon reviews, 8; Yelp, 7) or the $\sim$100-sentence synthetic MC/RP toy corpora built into lambeq (12 and 9 papers respectively), on which near-perfect accuracies are routinely reported [18], [56], [134]. Open because neither independent re-execution nor a shared benchmark across an otherwise fragmented, largely one-off set of datasets is possible at this reporting standard.

E. AN AGENDA FOR FUTURE WORK

Four actionable gaps follow directly from challenges C1–C5 above.

Noise-in-the-loop evaluation as a default, not an af-

TABLE 9. Open challenges with corpus evidence. Counts are over the full corpus ($n = 125$) and computed from the extraction sheet.

Challenge	Corpus evidence	Representative studies
C1 Encoding bottleneck & structure loss	768-dim embeddings cut to 2–10 features	[36], [49], [77]
C2 Incommensurable evaluation	15/125 without any classical baseline; near-unique baseline per paper	[45], [51]
C3 Simulation–hardware gap	95/125 noiseless only; 2025–26 hardware share $\leq$3.7%	[101], [143]
C4 No scaling evidence	102/125 single register width	[49], [73]
C5 Reproducibility & benchmark triviality	100/125 no code; 122/141 datasets used once; top reuse = MC/RP toy corpora (12, 9)	[18], [56], [134]

terthought. Report accuracy under an explicit, calibrated noise model as a minimum bar for publication, following the small set of corpus studies that already model depolarizing and readout error from real device calibration data rather than treating noise as a qualitative caveat. The case follows from C3: angle and amplitude encoding are simultaneously the fastest-growing families (Section VI-A) and the least hardware- or noise-validated (Section VIII-A). Recurrent quantum architectures, which re-apply their encoding once per token, have no noisy-simulation or hardware study anywhere in the corpus (Section VIII-B).

Controlled, cross-family encoding comparisons. Hold model family, dataset, and circuit depth fixed while swapping only the encoding or ansatz; make the controlled comparison the template, not the exception. Section V showed that encoding and model family are so tightly coupled that comparing "encoding families" is often really comparing the architectures they are bound to. The few studies that already run such controlled comparisons (Sections V-C and V-D) are disproportionately informative relative to their count.

Shared benchmarks with fixed classical baselines. Establish a small set of shared, encoding-agnostic NLP benchmarks with fixed classical baselines, of the kind proposed piecemeal but not standardized in the surveyed studies. This addresses C2 directly: Section VII found results incomparable across studies precisely because each paper chooses its own dataset, baseline, and protocol. Shared benchmarks would let future meta-analyses attribute a performance gap to the encoding rather than to the baseline an individual group selected.

From structural fit to a measurable gain. Search deliberately for task families where an encoding's mathematical structure performs the task's core computation, and prefer fits where that computation is classically expensive: for instance, whether the compositional structure of syntactic encoding can be matched to relational tasks such as question answering, where Section VII found a theoretical fit that the corpus is too thin to evaluate. The corpus's one documented fit, amplitude encoding on similarity and disambiguation, was found by mathematical necessity rather than deliberate search, and it yields efficiency rather than a better result: the encoded state reproduces exactly the classical geometry it loads, so nothing is gained beyond feasibility at logarithmic qubit cost (Section VII). A targeted study, rather than another general-purpose classifier, could establish whether a structural fit exists anywhere that also produces a gain measurable against a fixed classical baseline.

X. CONCLUSION

This article treated text encoding as the primary variable of QNLP research. Under a protocol fixed before the search was executed (Section III), it screened 376 database records and 1222 snowball candidates down to a final corpus of 125 primary studies published between 2021 and 2026. It organized them under a seven-family taxonomy, four major families (angle, amplitude, syntactic/DisCoCat, and structured feature-map) and three emerging families (data reuploading, hybrid embedding, and Hamiltonian/observable), defined not by model architecture or ansatz but by the point at which text enters the quantum computation (Section IV).

Four findings recur across the analysis. First, encoding and model family are tightly coupled rather than independently chosen. Syntactic encoding and compositional QNLP coincide by construction and so are set aside, but the coupling holds across the remaining 96 studies as well: structured feature maps concentrate in quantum kernels, and only angle and amplitude encoding travel freely across architectures. Comparing "encodings" in the literature is therefore frequently a comparison of the architectures they are bound to (Section V). Second, the field's rapid growth since 2023 has been a consolidation onto the encodings and model families that ask the least of a newcomer (angle- and amplitude-encoded VQCs and hybrid-neural pipelines built on pretrained embeddings), at the expense of the grammar-dependent compositional tradition that defined the field's first two years (Section VI). Third, that growth has not been matched by growth in experimental rigor: three-quarters of the corpus never leaves a noiseless simulator, hardware and noisy-simulation engagement fell to its lowest levels in the very years the corpus grew fastest, and code availability and simulation framework are each under-reported by a wide margin (Section VIII). Fourth, the corpus cannot be pooled on results: each study evaluates on a dataset, against a classical comparison, and under a protocol of its own choosing, and 15 studies report no classical baseline at all, so no two reported figures are commensurable. The only task–encoding fit the corpus supports therefore has to be argued from mechanism, and even that one, amplitude encoding on similarity and disambiguation tasks, where the encoded state's inner product performs the task's core computation directly, is presented by its own studies as faithful reproduction of classical similarity at logarithmic qubit cost rather than as an improvement on it (Section VII).

Underlying all four findings is the encoding bottleneck stated in Section IX-B: the persistent gap between the dimensionality of a useful text representation and the qubit budget near-term hardware can support. Every surveyed fam-

ily except syntactic encoding resolves this gap by paying in one of three currencies (discarded information, added circuit depth, or a relocated classical burden), and none eliminates it. This framing is the taxonomy's main payoff. It turns a fragmented set of implementation choices into a small number of comparable trade-offs, and it grounds the agenda of Section IX.

This review has its own limits, which should condition how its conclusions are used. The search covered two databases, Scopus and IEEE Xplore, and while two rounds of backward and forward snowball sampling were used specifically to recover work those databases miss, a search strategy of this kind cannot guarantee complete coverage of a fast-moving, preprint-heavy field. In particular, because snowballing was seeded from the field's surveys rather than from the included primary studies (Section III), primary work with no citation link to any survey of the field falls outside its reach. The 2026 publication counts used throughout are necessarily partial, since the search was conducted before the year closed, and every year-over-year trend reported in Sections VI and VIII should be read with that caveat attached to its final data point. Several of the extracted fields, scalability discussion and stated limitations among them, are self-reported by the primary studies themselves rather than independently re-derived, so the review inherits the same inconsistency in how individual authors define and report these properties that Section VII and Section VIII-D identify as a limitation of the field at large.

None of this changes the central conclusion. Text encoding is not a neutral preprocessing step in QNLP; it is the decision that fixes how much of a language sample survives contact with a near-term quantum circuit, and it deserves the same scrutiny as the ansatz, the optimizer, or the classical baseline it is compared against. The taxonomy and the encoding comparison framework introduced here are offered as the basis for that scrutiny in future work, including the encoding-controlled comparisons, noise-in-the-loop evaluations, and shared benchmarks called for in Section IX.

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